

RESEARCH ARTICLE

Anatomy of a Regional Civil War: Guangxi, China, 1967–1968

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Abstract

During the violent early years of China's Cultural Revolution, the province of Guangxi experienced by far the largest death toll of any comparable region. One explanation for the extreme violence emphasizes a process of collective killings focused on households in rural communities that were long categorized as class enemies by the regime. From this perspective, the high death tolls were generated by a form of collective behavior reminiscent of genocidal intergroup violence in Bosnia, Rwanda, and similar settings. Evidence from investigations conducted in China in the 1980s reveals the extent to which the killings were part of a province-wide suppression of rebel insurgents, carried out by village militia, who also targeted large numbers of noncombatants. Guangxi's death tolls were the product of a counterinsurgency campaign that more closely resembled the massacres of communists and suspected sympathizers coordinated by Indonesia's army in wake of the coup that deposed Sukarno in 1965.

Introduction

In early 1967, shortly after the onset of its decade-long Cultural Revolution, China's civilian political structures collapsed in a wave of rebel power seizures. Armed political factions subsequently fought one another across most provinces until the reimposition of order by military units near the end of 1968. In the course of these armed conflicts and the effort to suppress them and rebuild the political order, the national death toll reached close to 1.6 million (Walder 2014; 2019: 188–93). During this brief period, one province stood out as unusually violent: Guangxi, on China's border with Vietnam.¹

Guangxi's experience was distinctive in several ways. First, its documented death toll far surpassed that of any other province, many of which had populations several times larger. Second, the final battles to pacify major cities involved the bombardment of entire neighborhoods with heavy arms and artillery, reducing them to

¹In 1958, Guangxi Province was renamed the Guangxi Zhuang Autonomous Region—in recognition of China's largest non-Han ethnic minority, the Zhuang, who comprised one-third of its population. I use the shorter and more familiar term “province” throughout this article.

RESEARCH ARTICLE

区域内战剖析：中国广西，1967-1968 年

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摘要

在中国文化大革命的暴力早期，广西省的死亡人数远远超过任何可比地区。对于这种极端暴力的一个解释是，它强调了一种集体屠杀的过程，这种屠杀集中在农村社区的家庭，这些家庭长期以来被政权归类为阶级敌人。从这个角度来看，高死亡人数是由一种集体行为产生的，这种行为让人联想到波斯尼亚、卢旺达和类似环境中灭绝种族的群体间暴力。20 世纪 80 年代中国进行的调查显示，这些杀戮在多大程度上是全省范围内对叛乱分子进行镇压的一部分，由民兵实施，他们也以大量非战斗人员为目标。广西的死亡人数是一场反暴乱运动的产物，这场运动更像是 1965 年苏加诺被推翻后，印度尼西亚军队协调的大规模屠杀共产党员和疑似同情者。

导言

1967 年初，在中国长达十年的文化大革命开始后不久，中国的文职政治结构在一场叛乱力量夺权的浪潮中崩溃了。随后，武装政治派别在大多数省份相互争斗，直到 1968 年底军队重新实施秩序。在这些武装冲突以及镇压冲突和重建政治秩序的努力中，全国死亡人数接近 160 万（Walder 2014; 2019: 188–93）。在这段短暂的时期里，有一个省份的暴力事件尤为突出：广西，位于中国与越南的边界。¹

广西的经验在几个方面是独特的。首先，其记录在案的死亡人数远远超过了其他任何省份，其中许多省份的人口规模是广西的数倍。其次，平息主要城市的最后战役包括用重型武器和大炮轰炸整个街区，将其夷为平地

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1958 年，广西省更名为广西壮族自治区，以表彰中国最大的非汉族少数民族——壮族，壮族占其人口的三分之一。在本文中，我使用更短、更常用的术语“省”。

rudder. During the bombardment, thousands were killed, similar numbers were executed afterward, and tens of thousands of the city residents were left homeless (Walder 2019: 176–78). Third, the killings were not limited to activists and armed fighters on the losing side; they included large numbers of noncombatants in politically stigmatized households that were uninvolved in the conflicts. This was particularly common in rural areas (Song 2002; Su 2011). Fourth, rural killings were frequently carried out with shocking brutality. Later investigations revealed abundant examples of sexual violence, the mutilation and dismemberment of corpses, and even cannibalism (Sutton 1995; Zheng 1996).

What was it about Guangxi that so exaggerated the levels of violence? The collapse of civilian governments in early 1967 and the subsequent period of armed factional warfare was common across China, and the suppression of conflicts and the rebuilding of political order generated far more casualties than the factional warfare (Walder 2014). As in Guangxi, violence was concentrated in regions that had languished the longest before reestablishing a local government (Walder and Chu 2020). However, the upsurge of deadly violence during the reimposition of political order was far more intense in Guangxi. Killings of noncombatants in politically stigmatized households did occur elsewhere, but they were rare and limited to one county or a cluster of counties (Song 2002; Tan 2017). They occurred widely across Guangxi and generated an unusually large percentage of the deaths.

The most carefully documented analysis of these events attributes Guangxi's catastrophic violence to collective behavior in villages of the kind that bred genocidal intergroup violence in other settings (Su 2011). The violence focused on rural households permanently stigmatized as enemies of the people for their historical associations with exploiting social classes and opponents of the Communist Party. The killings appeared to be disconnected from the factional conflicts that beset Guangxi's urban areas. They seemed to be touched off inadvertently by rhetoric unleashed against the losing faction in the cities, which portrayed them as conspiring with foreign enemies and historical opponents of the regime to overturn Communist Party rule.

Su further proposed that these collective processes were accelerated by distinctive regional characteristics. The most important was the history of Han migration into the southern reaches of China's historical empires, which generated traditions of clan warfare and martial self-defense in local communities divided between early Han settlers and culturally distinct later migrants known as Hakka. A second regional characteristic was the remoteness of many of the villages and the relative weakness of local state structures, where it appeared that killings were more likely to spiral out of control. According to this analysis, these two factors worked together to generate death tolls unrivaled elsewhere in China. This explanation draws explicit parallels between the killings in Guangxi's villages and genocidal intergroup violence in other settings. It pushes well into the background the origins, development, and structure of factional conflicts, which were thought to be restricted to urban areas.

This article draws on unusually detailed sources that document for every city and county in Guangxi during this period the unfolding of factional conflict and its subsequent repression. It pulls into the foreground the origins and structure of the factional conflicts, which penetrated deeply into many rural districts. At the core of the explanation is a military hierarchy that paralleled the civilian structures of

瓦砾。在轰炸中，数千人丧生，类似数量的人在事后被处决，数万城市居民无家可归（Walder 2019: 176–78）。第三，杀戮不仅限于失败一方的积极分子和武装战斗人员；他们包括大量政治上受污名化的家庭中的非战斗人员，这些人并未参与冲突。这在农村地区尤为常见（Song 2002; Su 2011）。第四，农村地区的杀戮经常以令人震惊的残暴手段进行。后来的调查揭示了大量性暴力、肢解尸体甚至同类相食的例子（Sutton 1995; Zheng 1996）。

广西究竟有什么特别之处，以至于暴力程度如此夸张？1967年初文职政府的垮台以及随后的武装派系战争在中国各地都很普遍，镇压冲突和重建政治秩序造成的伤亡远多于派系战争（Walder 2014）。与广西一样，暴力集中在重建地方政府前长期衰弱的地区（Walder and Chu 2020）。然而，在政治秩序恢复期间，致命暴力的 surge 比广西更为强烈。在政治上受污名化的家庭中杀害非战斗人员的情况在其他地方也确实发生过，但它们很少见，并且仅限于一个县或几个县（Song 2002; Tan 2017）。它们在广西广泛发生，并造成了异常大的死亡百分比。

对这些事件最仔细记录的分析将广西的灾难性暴力归因于村庄中的集体行为，这种行为在其他环境中滋生了种族灭绝的群体间暴力（Su 2011）。暴力集中在农村家庭，这些家庭因其与剥削社会阶级和共产党反对者的历史联系而被永久污名化为人民的敌人。杀戮似乎与困扰广西城市地区的派系冲突无关。它们似乎是被针对城市中失败派系的反击言论无意中引发的，这些言论将他们描绘成与外国敌人和该政权的历史反对者勾结，以推翻共产党的统治。

苏进一步提出，这些集体进程因独特的区域特征而加速。最重要的是汉族迁徙到中国历史帝国南部地区的历史，这在早期汉族定居者和被称为客家的文化上不同的后期移民之间划分的地方社区中，产生了宗族战争和武术自卫的传统。第二个区域特征是一些村庄的偏远以及地方国家结构的相对薄弱，在这种情况下，杀戮似乎更容易失控。根据这项分析，这两个因素共同导致了在中国其他地方无法比拟的死亡人数。这种解释在广西村庄的杀戮与其他环境中的种族灭绝群体间暴力之间建立了明确的相似之处。它将派系冲突的起源、发展和结构推到了背景中，人们认为这些冲突仅限于城市地区。

本文利用了异常详细的资料，记录了这一时期广西每个城市和县派系冲突的展开及其随后的镇压。它将渗透到许多农村地区的派系冲突的起源和结构推到了最前沿。解释的核心是与文职结构平行的军事等级制度

the party-state. This hierarchy reached every village in the form of militia forces under the command of the lowest rung in the regional hierarchy of the People's Liberation Army. These networks overlapped with factional divisions, and local militia were aligned with one of the two province-wide civilian factions. When repression was unleashed against the weaker of the two factions, it extended deeply into rural communities through these networks, which activated village militia. What appeared in some descriptions to be collective action by ordinary villagers was in fact an organized campaign of elimination coordinated through the provincial military hierarchy, which activated militia forces in villages. The picture that emerges more closely resembles the massacres of suspected Communists and other leftists coordinated by the Indonesian army in 1965 (Robinson 2018), and counter-insurgency campaigns in Guatemala and other settings that target noncombatants along with insurgents (Ball et al. 1999).

These materials also provide evidence that casts doubt on the notion that Guangxi's population and history were distinctive in ways that intensified the violence. The most important such distinction appears to be contemporary and geopolitical: Guangxi was a staging area for military support for China's Vietnamese allies during the period when the American war effort escalated to unprecedented levels. This played a central role in Beijing's decision to unleash repression in a strategic border region where factional warfare had proven highly resistant to negotiation and compromise.

Regional Characteristics

Before we consider the political processes that led to these killings, we should first note several ways in which Guangxi was distinct from other regions. It was overwhelmingly rural and economically underdeveloped; it had an unusually large and diverse population of ethnic minorities; it had generated successive rebellions against Chinese empires over the centuries; and it was located on the border with Vietnam during the height of the American military campaign against the North. All these might have intensified violence either directly or indirectly.

The first distinctive feature of Guangxi was its backwardness. It was one of China's least industrialized regions, ranking 25th out of the 29 provinces at the time. Its capital, Nanning, had a population of only 457,000, while other provincial capitals averaged more than 1.5 million. The remaining cities averaged only 188,000 residents. Educational levels were very low. There were only 7,120 university students in the province (Guangxi Local Annals Editorial Committee 1995: 438, 441–45). Beijing's Tsinghua and Peking Universities both had more students (Walder 2009, 20 and 23). In a province of 25 million, there were only 29,312 in high school. With more than 317,000 enrolled in junior high, the odds of advancing to the next level were slim (Guangxi Local Annals Editorial Committee 1995: 209). Mountainous terrain left many villages poorly accessible and isolated. Some who have chronicled these events viewed reports of ritual mutilation and cannibalism as symptoms of the region's backwardness (Zheng 1996).

Another distinctive feature is Guangxi's unusually large population of non-Han ethnic groups. Only 60 percent of Guangxi's population in the mid-1960s were

党国。这个等级制度以民兵部队的形式到达每个村庄，这些民兵部队由人民解放军地区等级制度中的最低一级指挥。这些网络与派系分裂重叠，地方民兵与该省范围内的两个平民派系之一结盟。当镇压针对较弱的派系时，它通过这些网络深入到农村社区，激活村庄民兵。在一些描述中，普通村民的集体行动实际上是一场有组织的清除运动，该运动通过省级军事等级制度进行协调，激活了村庄中的民兵部队。由此产生的画面更像是 1965 年印度尼西亚军队协调的大规模屠杀疑似共产党员和其他左翼分子（Robinson 2018），以及危地马拉和其他地方的反叛乱运动，这些运动以非战斗人员和叛乱分子为目标（Ball et al. 1999）。

这些材料还提供了证据，使人们对广西的人口和历史以某种方式加剧暴力的观点产生怀疑。最重要的这种区别似乎是当代的和地缘政治的：在美国的战争努力升级到前所未有的水平期间，广西是中国为越南盟友提供军事支持的集结地。这在很大程度上影响了北京决定在战略边界地区发动镇压，因为事实证明，该地区的派系战争极难通过谈判和妥协来解决。

区域特征

在我们考虑导致这些杀戮的政治进程之前，我们应该首先注意到广西与其他地区的不同之处。它绝大多数是农村和经济不发达地区；它拥有异常庞大且多样化的少数民族人口；几个世纪以来，它曾多次发动反对中国帝国的叛乱；在美国对北方发动军事行动的高峰期，它位于与越南的边界上。所有这些都可能直接或间接地加剧暴力。

广西的第一个独特特征是它的落后。它是中国工业化程度最低的地区之一，当时在 29 个省份中排名第 25 位。其首府南宁的人口只有 45.7 万，而其他省会城市的平均人口超过 150 万。其余城市的平均居民只有 18.8 万。教育水平非常低。全省只有 7120 名大学生（广西地方志编纂委员会 1995: 438, 441–45）。北京、清华大学和北京大学的学生都比较多（Walder 2009, 20 和 23）。在一个拥有 2500 万人口的省份，只有 29312 人上高中。初中入学人数超过 31.7 万，升入下一个级别的几率很小（广西地方志编纂委员会 1995: 209）。山区地形使许多村庄难以进入且与世隔绝。一些记录这些事件的人认为，关于仪式性残割和同类相食的报道是该地区落后的症状（Zheng 1996）。

另一个显著的特点是广西非汉族人口异常庞大。20 世纪 60 年代中期，广西人口中只有 60% 是汉族。

classified as Han Chinese, and just more than one-third were Zhuang, China's largest ethnic minority.² As an "autonomous region" set aside for the Zhuang, Guangxi was in the same administrative category as Tibet, Inner Mongolia, Ningxia (for Han Muslims), and Xinjiang (for Muslim Uighurs).

The Zhuang are part of a Tai language group distributed across the southern borders of China and northern Thailand, Vietnam, and Laos. Well into the twentieth century they spoke a language distinct from both the Cantonese and Mandarin dialects spoken in Guangxi, and language was the primary marker of their identity. Violence in other minority regions during this period has been attributed to ethnic divisions. Inner Mongolia suffered a brutal campaign against an alleged "Inner Mongolian People's Party" that generated death tolls rivaling Guangxi's. One analyst has argued that the campaign was a disguised form of ethnic cleansing (Yang 2014). A bloody rebellion in Tibet during this period has been interpreted as mobilization against Han Chinese oppression (Ngagpo 1988; Smith 1996).

Unlike Mongols and Tibetans, the Zhuang are not marked off from Han by distinctive religious and cultural traits or aspirations for political autonomy in the modern era. The last kingdom identified with the Zhuang was defeated a thousand years ago. By the twentieth century most Zhuang had assimilated into Han culture, and in the 1938 census they were counted as Han (Mackerras 1994: 44, 130, 144, and 266). It is nonetheless true that Guangxi was a notably unruly part of Chinese empires. It was one of the last to be settled by Han migrants and was one of the most rebellious provinces during the Ming dynasty of 1368–1644. The Taiping Rebellion (1850–67), which came close to overthrowing the Qing Dynasty, originated in northeastern Guangxi (Kuhn 1978). Many localities with high death tolls during the 1960s were in the region where the Taiping Rebellion was launched (Spence 1996: 126–57).

In his carefully documented study of mass killings in Guangxi and neighboring Guangdong Province, Su (2011) argued that the link between the region's history and the events of the late 1960s are to be found in the presence a distinctive Han subgroup known as Hakka, the Cantonese pronunciation of the term "guest people" (*kejia*). Culturally and linguistically distinct from other Han migrants who settled in the valleys in earlier Chinese empires, they migrated into the region in recent centuries (Hashimoto 1973; Leong 1997). Settling in marginal hilly lands and mountain districts, they often battled established groups over land and water rights (Cohen 1968). The Taiping rebellion originated among Guangxi's Hakkas, and its founders and early leaders were all Hakka. The group had a reputation in early modern times for clan warfare and blood feuds. The largest and most dramatic of these battles were the Hakka-Punti wars that raged in parts of Guangdong from 1855 to 1867, claiming the lives of close to one million (Roberts 1969).

Su (2011: 79–94) argued that Hakka villages retained a martial tradition of collective self-defense, a legacy that served to intensify the violence in localities where Hakka were concentrated. Drawing on published local histories and population data from 116 counties in Guangxi and Guangdong, he found that counties with larger

²In the 1964 census there were 8.4 million Zhuang, 90 percent of whom lived in Guangxi (Mackerras 1994: 158, 238). Guangxi was also home to smaller ethnic minorities, who comprised another 7 percent of the population.

被划为汉族，其中略多于三分之一是壮族，中国最大的少数民族。² 作为为壮族设立的“自治区”，广西与西藏、内蒙古、宁夏（为汉族穆斯林）和新疆（为穆斯林维吾尔族）属于同一行政类别。

壮族是分布在中国南方边界以及泰国北部、越南和老挝的一个泰语族群的一部分。直到二十世纪，他们说的语言都与广西使用的粤语和普通话方言不同，语言是他们身份的主要标志。在此期间，其他少数民族地区的暴力事件归因于民族分裂。内蒙古遭受了一场残酷的运动，针对所谓的“内蒙古人民'党”，其造成的死亡人数与广西不相上下。一位分析人士认为，这场运动是一种伪装的种族清洗形式（Yang 2014）。在此期间，西藏发生了一场血腥的叛乱，被解释为反对汉族压迫的动员（Ngagpo 1988; Smith 1996）。

与蒙古族和藏族不同，壮族并没有因为独特的宗教和文化特征或对现代政治自治的渴望而与汉族区分开来。最后一个与壮族有关的王国在一千年前被击败。到二十世纪，大多数壮族人已经融入汉族文化，在 1938 年的人口普查中，他们被算作汉族（Mackerras 1994: 44, 130, 144, and 266）。然而，广西确实是中国帝国中一个非常不守规矩的部分。它是汉族移民最后定居的地方之一，也是 1368–1644 年明朝时期最叛逆的省份之一。太平天国起义（1850–67）几乎推翻了清朝，它起源于广西东北部（Kuhn 1978）。20 世纪 60 年代死亡人数众多的许多地区都位于太平天国起义爆发的地区（Spence 1996: 126–57）。

苏（2011）在他对广西和邻近的广东省的大屠杀的精心记录研究中认为，该地区的历史与 1960 年代后期的事件之间的联系在于，存在一个独特的汉族亚群，即客家人，这是“客人”（*kejia*）的粤语发音。他们在文化和语言上与其他在早期中国帝国定居在山谷中的汉族移民不同，他们在最近几个世纪迁移到该地区（Hashimoto 1973; Leong 1997）。他们定居在边缘的山地和山区，经常为土地和水权与已建立的群体作战（Cohen 1968）。太平天国运动起源于广西的客家人，其创始人和早期领导人都是客家人。在近代早期，该群体以宗族战争和血腥仇杀而闻名。其中规模最大、最引人注目的是 1855 年至 1867 年发生在广东部分地区的客家 - 本地人战争，造成近一百万人丧生（Roberts 1969）。

苏（2011: 79–94）认为，客家村庄保留了集体自卫的尚武传统，这一遗产加剧了客家人集中地区的暴力。他利用已出版的地方史和来自广西和广东 116 个县的人口数据，发现拥有较大

²在 1964 年的人口普查中，有 840 万壮族人，其中 90 % 居住在广西（Mackerras 1994: 158, 238）。广西也是较小少数民族的家园，他们占总人口的另外 7 %。

populations of Hakka had larger death tolls. He found, further, that counties where Zhuang and other minorities were concentrated had *lower* death counts (Su 2011: 233–35). The link to the past that accounts for the region's intense violence, Su argues, runs through the Hakka subgroup.

A final feature of Guangxi clearly distinguished it at this point in history—the geopolitical and military significance of its location on the border of Vietnam. It was during this period—1966 through 1968—that military escalation by US forces reached its peak. There were other border regions where security concerns were important, but only Guangxi was adjacent to an active war zone in which China played a key support role. During the rapid escalation of the war after 1965, there were regular violations of Chinese air space by American aircraft, and Guangxi was the rear base for air support and the movement of engineering and antiaircraft units into Vietnam. Systematic bombing of North Vietnam's ports, railways, and cities began in late 1965 and intensified through 1968. Guangxi was the main route for shipping military supplies along a railway line that ran through the border town of Pingxiang. In August 1964, the headquarters of the PLA's 7th Air Force Division was relocated from Guangdong to Nanning to defend Guangxi and the Gulf of Tonkin, and two new airports were built to serve four air divisions relocated toward the border. At the same time, the PLA's 47th Army Corps was also sent into Guangxi for border defense (Chen 1995: 364).

Although these geopolitical considerations were far from the concerns of political factions and villages where mass killings occurred in 1968, they shaped the context in which the conflicts unfolded. They were a key consideration in Beijing's unusual decision to retain Wei Guoqing, Guangxi's long-standing top official, to head military control forces after the collapse of civilian government in early 1967. His appointment became the primary source of conflict between rebel factions in Guangxi, and for a long period it was also controversial in Beijing. The escalation in Vietnam also appears to be a key factor in Beijing's decision to unleash repression against stubborn insurgent holdouts in July 1968. In 1964, when China began to build up its military forces in Guangxi, the United States had close to 24,000 combat soldiers in Vietnam. By 1968, they had more than 500,000 and were intensively bombing the North. The rapid escalation of the war on China's doorstep, and Guangxi's role as a staging area, intensified geopolitical and security concerns that became irreconcilable with the disruptions that Mao had encouraged earlier in the Cultural Revolution. As Guangxi's conflicts wore on, and as the American military campaign escalated beyond all imagination, Beijing's tolerance for rebel discord in Guangxi evaporated. These concerns were unique to Guangxi, and they shaped the broader context that makes the massacres of 1968 intelligible.

Political Violence as Collective Behavior

Published accounts in China frequently provide detailed chronological narratives of these conflicts, but they are silent about Guangxi's ethnic composition and do not refer to any other distinctive features of the province (e.g., Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990). It is not surprising that official publications would obscure any ethnic dimension to the violence. The regime strives to project an image

客家人口的死亡人数更多。他还发现，壮族和其他少数民族集中的县死亡人数较少（苏 2011:233–35）。苏认为，造成该地区如此剧烈暴力的历史渊源在于客家亚群。’s

广西的最后一个特点清楚地表明了它在历史上的独特之处——它在越南边境的地理政治和军事意义。正是在这段时期——1966年至1968年——美军的军事升级达到了顶峰。其他边境地区的安全问题也很重要，但只有广西毗邻中国发挥关键支持作用的活跃战区。1965年后，随着战争的迅速升级，美国飞机经常侵犯中国领空，广西是空中支援以及工程和防空部队进入越南的后方基地。1965年末，对北越’s港口、铁路和城市的系统轰炸开始了，并在1968年加剧。广西是沿途一条穿过边境城镇凭祥的铁路线运送军事物资的主要通道。1964年8月，解放军’s第七航空兵师的总部从广东迁至南宁，以保卫广西和北部湾，并新建了两个机场，为向边境转移的四个航空兵师服务。与此同时，解放军’s第47集团军也被派往广西进行边防（陈 1995: 364）。

尽管这些地缘政治因素与1968年发生大规模屠杀的政治派别和村庄的担忧相去甚远，但它们塑造了冲突发生的背景。在1967年初文人政府垮台后，北京决定保留广西长期以来的最高官员韦国清，让他领导军事管制部队，这是一个关键的考虑因素。他的任命成为广西叛军派别之间冲突的主要根源，而且在很长一段时间内，在北京也备受争议。越南的升级似乎也是北京决定在1968年7月对顽固的叛乱分子发动镇压的一个关键因素。1964年，当中国开始在广西建立军事力量时，美国在越南的战斗士兵接近24000人。到1968年，他们的人数超过了50万，并对北方进行了密集的轰炸。在中国家门口的战争迅速升级，以及广西作为集结地的作用，加剧了地缘政治和安全方面的担忧，这些担忧与毛泽东早期在文化大革命中鼓励的混乱局面变得不可调和。随着广西冲突的持续，以及美国军事行动的规模超乎想象地扩大，北京对广西叛军的容忍度消失殆尽。这些担忧是广西独有的，它们塑造了更广泛的背景，使1968年的大屠杀变得可以理解。

作为集体行为的政治暴力

中国已发表的报告经常提供有关这些冲突的详细的按时间顺序排列的叙述，但它们对广西’s的民族构成保持沉默，并且没有提及该省的任何其他显著特征（例如，《广西文化大革命纪事》1990）。官方出版物会掩盖任何与暴力相关的民族因素，这并不奇怪。该政权力求展示一种形象

of national harmony promoted by generous treatment of ethnic minorities. In narrating the flow of events these accounts place overwhelming emphasis on the impact of the “July 3 Orders” (*qi.san bugao*), a harshly worded 1968 directive from Beijing that mandated the restoration of order by force, designating rebel holdouts as class enemies and agents of foreign powers (Bu 2008: 707–15). The narratives condemn these orders and the wave of killings that followed, which are framed as a consequence of an erroneous political line. This implicitly designates the July 3 Orders as the feature that set Guangxi apart from other regions. The orders evidently triggered subsequent events, but they do not explain the severity of the violence by themselves, or the reasons why it focused to such an extent on politically stigmatized households. What were the processes unleashed by the July 3 Orders?

The best documented analysis of the killings in Guangxi interprets the impact of the July 3 Orders from the perspective of social movement theory and research on genocide as a form of intergroup violence (Su 2011). It focuses on collective processes in rural communities that were inadvertently sparked by civilian and military authorities in their final push to consolidate political control over cities. In this portrayal, official political rhetoric framed violence against rebel insurgents as a righteous defense against the underground conspiracies of class enemies, creating unintended consequences in remote rural communities. Mass killings of noncombatants spiraled out of control in villages, focusing on politically stigmatized households (former landlords, rich peasants, former members of the Nationalist Party or army, and others designated as political enemies). This line of analysis emphasizes the Chinese regime’s practice during this period of formally designating entire households according to political categories that became caste-like identities inherited through the male line (Unger 1984; Walder 2015: 108–12).

Su’s analysis is based on an intensive examination of 116 published local histories for Guangxi and Guangdong provinces. These publications, remarkably frank given political censorship in China, provide considerable detail about killings at the village level, which the compilers of the histories were intent on exposing. Mass killings of stigmatized households were rarely reported in urban areas, and armed conflict between political factions appeared to be restricted primarily to the cities. Based on these sources, it did not appear that there was widespread factional conflict in villages. Su (2011: 38) calculated the deaths attributable to armed battles in these materials and found that they comprised only around 14 percent of the total reported deaths. He concluded that the remainder were almost entirely attributable to mass killings in villages, and that almost all of those killed were noncombatants in politically stigmatized categories.

How, then, to explain mass killings in rural regions? In this portrayal, factional warfare was an urban phenomenon separate from the killings in rural communities. The campaign to suppress factional enemies in urban conflicts indirectly spurred members of rural communities to commit collective campaigns of extermination against noncombatants in stigmatized households. Su notes that the July 3 Orders, which mandated the merciless suppression of remaining insurgents in the losing faction, justified this with the charge that these insurgents were in fact part of a counterrevolutionary conspiracy to overthrow Communist Party rule, and that they were working with historical class enemies of the regime both at home and abroad.

民族和谐，通过慷慨对待少数民族来促进。在叙述事件的流程时，这些描述极度强调了“七三布告”(qisan bugao)的影响，这是1968年北京发布的措辞严厉的指令，强制以武力恢复秩序，将反叛分子指定为阶级敌人和外国势力的代理人 (Bu 2008: 707–15)。这些叙述谴责这些命令以及随之而来的杀戮浪潮，这些杀戮被认为是错误的政治路线的后果。这含蓄地表明“七三布告”是将广西与其他地区区分开来的特征。这些命令显然引发了随后的事件，但它们本身并不能解释暴力的严重性，也不能解释为什么暴力如此集中在政治上受污名化的家庭中。“七三布告”释放了哪些过程？

对广西屠杀事件的最佳文献分析是从社会运动理论和将种族灭绝作为一种群体间暴力的研究角度来解释“七三布告”的影响 (Su 2011)。它侧重于农村社区的集体行动，这些行动是由文职和军事当局在最终推动巩固对城市的政治控制时无意中引发的。在这种描述中，官方的政治言论将针对叛乱分子的暴力行为定义为对阶级敌人地下阴谋的正义防御，从而在偏远的农村社区造成了意想不到的后果。针对非战斗人员的大规模杀戮在村庄中失控，主要集中在政治上受污名化的家庭（以前的地主、富农、前国民党或军队成员以及其他被指定为政治敌人的家庭）。这种分析强调了中国政权在此期间的做法，即根据政治类别正式指定整个家庭，这些类别变成了像种姓一样的身份，通过男性血统继承 (Unger 1984; Walder 2015: 108–12)。

苏’的分析基于对广西和广东两省116部已出版的地方志的深入研究。这些出版物在中国政治审查制度下显得非常坦率，提供了关于村级屠杀的大量细节，而这些历史的编纂者们致力于揭露这些屠杀。在城市地区，对受污名家庭的大规模屠杀很少被报道，而政治派别之间的武装冲突似乎主要局限于城市。基于这些资料，似乎没有证据表明乡村地区存在广泛的派系冲突。苏 (2011: 38) 计算了这些材料中因武装战斗造成的死亡人数，发现它们仅占报告总死亡人数的14%左右。他得出结论，其余的几乎完全是由于乡村地区的大规模屠杀造成的，而且几乎所有被杀者都是政治上受污名类别的非战斗人员。

那么，如何解释农村地区的大规模屠杀呢？在这种描述中，派系战争是一种城市现象，与农村社区的屠杀是分开的。在城市冲突中镇压派系敌人的运动间接刺激了农村社区成员对受污名家庭的非战斗人员进行集体灭绝运动。苏指出，7月3日命令强制无情镇压失败派系中剩余的叛乱分子，并以这些叛乱分子实际上是颠覆共产党统治的反革命阴谋的一部分为理由，而且他们正在与国内外该政权的历史阶级敌人合作。

This argument draws on a concept from the cognitive branch of the social movement literature known as “framing.” As the July 3 Orders were repeated by authorities and relayed down to recently reestablished governments in counties, those in politically stigmatized households were identified as active coconspirators in an effort to overthrow the existing order. As class enemies, they were portrayed as non-persons, suitable for extermination in a revolutionary class war. This unleashed a wave of killings in villages, removing inhibitions against inhuman acts (Su 2011: 188–220). Su draws explicit parallels with genocidal acts by ordinary citizens in Rwanda, Bosnia, and other settings (Strauss 2006; Valentino 2004).

This is the most credible existing analysis of why Guangxi was different. It addresses both of the key puzzles presented by the case—the unusually high death tolls and the reasons why the killings focused on an underclass of politically stigmatized noncombatants. It accounts for the impact of the July 3 Orders. It also specifies regional characteristics that appear to have magnified the violence. And it provides a coherent theoretical argument that draws explicit parallels with the literature on genocide and intergroup violence in other settings.

The analysis is also firmly based on evidence extracted from a large number of published local histories. The key supporting observations, based on these materials, are the following. First, the factional conflicts between Guangxi’s two rebel alliances were limited primarily to cities and to the county seats and did not extend into villages. Second, rural killings were carried out by covillagers who were mobilized by the rhetoric of authorities at the province and county level, inadvertently spurring a largely unintended wave of killings. Third, because armed battles between factions were responsible for only a small portion of the overall death toll, the vast majority of those killed were members of stigmatized households rather than members of a rebel faction. Finally, killings were not carried out by agents of the state, but instead were the product of collective behavior by village residents.

New Sources

In this article I analyze a dataset of political events extracted from classified government investigation reports compiled during the 1980s. The new materials, which have only recently become widely available, provide an opportunity to examine this case in greater depth. They provide far more narrative and statistical detail about the conflicts of this period than the published local histories that have formed the foundation for prior research.

The new materials are from an extraordinary investigation by central government authorities in the 1980s, a period when the post-Mao leadership was determined to expose the violence and injustices of the Cultural Revolution. After it became clear that Guangxi officials were covering up the death tolls and the parties responsible, the Central Committee of the Chinese Communist Party dispatched two waves of investigators to the province in the early 1980s. The first, in 1981, consisted of 20 investigation teams from a range of agencies in Beijing. They bypassed provincial authorities and fanned out across cities and counties, examined local party and government archives, and interviewed more than 700 provincial and local officials, ordinary citizens, and inmates of prisons and labor camps. After this initial

这个论点借鉴了社会运动文献认知分支中的一个概念，即“框架。”随着 7 月 3 日命令被当局重复并下达给县里新成立的政府，那些在政治上受污名的家庭被认为是积极的同谋，企图推翻现有的秩序。作为阶级敌人，他们被描绘成非人，适合在革命阶级战争中被消灭。这在村庄里掀起了一波杀戮浪潮，消除了对不人道行为的抑制（苏 2011:188–220）。苏明确地将卢旺达、波斯尼亚和其他地区的普通公民的种族灭绝行为进行了比较（Strauss 2006; Valentino 2004）。

这是目前对广西为何与众不同的最可信的分析。它解决了该案例提出的两个关键难题——异常高的死亡人数以及杀戮为何集中在政治上受污名的非战斗人员下层阶级身上。它解释了 7 月 3 日命令的影响。它还明确了似乎加剧了暴力的区域特征。它提供了一个连贯的理论论证，明确地将其他环境中的种族灭绝和群体间暴力文献进行了比较。

该分析也牢固地基于从大量已出版的地方历史中提取的证据。基于这些材料的关键支持性观察如下。首先，广西两大反叛联盟之间的派系冲突主要限于城市和县城，并没有蔓延到村庄。其次，农村地区的杀戮是由村民实施的，他们受到省市县各级政府官员的言论鼓动，无意中引发了一场主要由意外造成的杀戮浪潮。第三，由于派系之间的武装战斗仅造成了总体死亡人数的一小部分，因此绝大多数被杀者是受污名家庭的成员，而不是反叛派系的成员。最后，杀戮不是由国家机关实施的，而是村民集体行为的产物。

新资料来源

在本文中，我分析了一个政治事件数据集，该数据集是从 20 世纪 80 年代编纂的机密政府调查报告中提取的。这些新材料最近才开始广泛使用，为更深入地研究这一案例提供了机会。与之前研究的基础——已出版的当地历史相比，它们提供了更多关于这一时期冲突的叙述和统计细节。

这些新材料来自 20 世纪 80 年代中央政府当局进行的一项非同寻常的调查，当时后毛泽东时代的领导人决心揭露文化大革命的暴力和不公正。在明确广西官员掩盖死亡人数和责任方之后，中国共产党中央委员会于 20 世纪 80 年代初向该省派出了两批调查人员。第一批是 1981 年，由来自北京各机构的 20 个调查组组成。他们绕过省级当局，分散到各个城市和县，检查当地的党政档案，并采访了 700 多名省市级官员、普通公民以及监狱和劳改营的囚犯。在最初的

foray uncovered evidence of a cover-up, a second team of higher-ranking investigators were sent to the province in 1983 and carried out an even larger and more thorough investigation that involved examination of local archives and interviews with survivors. More than 100 officials on Beijing-led teams employed close to 100,000 local personnel, compiling detailed reports on every county and city (Guangxi Party Committee 1987, 1: 1; Yan 2012).

The result was an 18-volume set of paperbound books, encased in blue plastic covers, issued in 1987 and 1988 as “organization-level secrets” (*ji mi*) (Guangxi Party Committee 1987). Ranging from 394 to 854 pages in length, they detailed local events and the punishments meted out to officials, party members, and others who were found responsible. The volumes have been transcribed and published as 36 volumes of searchable electronic files, 2 per each of the original 18 volumes (Song 2016).³

Extracting Data from Narrative Accounts

Prior research on this period has drawn on datasets compiled by coding information in published local histories. Walder and Su (2003) analyzed data from more than 1,500 rural county histories. Su (2011) extracted data from 187 local histories from three provinces, including Guangxi. Walder (2014, 2019), Walder and Lu (2017), and Walder and Chu (2020) analyzed a dataset drawn from 2,246 local histories, covering 97 percent of local jurisdictions.

The detail in the internal reports far surpasses the published histories. The Guangxi publications devoted an average of 9.8 pages (defined as 500 Chinese characters per page) to describing events from mid-1966 to the end of 1971. The investigation reports devote an average of 37 pages to events from mid-1966 to the end of 1969. The published histories contain reports of 560 conflict events, an average of 6.5 per jurisdiction. The investigation reports describe 4,938 events, an average of 57 per jurisdiction—nine times more narrative detail.

The resulting dataset contains three types of variables. The first is a range of demographic, organizational, and geographic features of each of the 6 cities and 80 counties, drawn from statistical handbooks and other publications. The second records the timing of political events that occur only once, tracing the evolution of local political processes: for example, the first appearance of a rebel group, a power seizure over a local government, the formation of political factions, the first intervention of military forces, and the reestablishment of local government. Few localities have missing information about such events. The third type of information was more difficult to code because of the richness of the descriptions of events that occurred repeatedly. Coding schemes drawn from the sparse descriptions in local histories employed a small number of broad coding categories (Walder 2014, 2019). The much richer account descriptions created dilemmas about assigning a specific event to categories and raised questions about the definition of an event.

To retain in the dataset as much narrative detail as possible, each conflict event was coded along three separate dimensions. The first is a classification of 27 categories that “best characterize” the action described. Narrower categories are reserved for simple actions, while broader categories are reserved for more complicated event

初步调查发现了掩盖真相的证据，1983年，又派遣了第二批更高级别的调查人员前往该省，进行了更大规模、更彻底的调查，包括查阅当地档案馆和采访幸存者。由北京领导的100多名官员组成的团队雇用了近10万名当地人员，汇编了关于每个县市的详细报告（广西党委 1987, 1: 1；严 2012）。

最终成果是一套18卷的平装书，装在蓝色塑料封面里，于1987年和1988年作为“组织级秘密”（机密）发布（广西党委 1987）。这些书的长度从394页到854页不等，详细描述了当地发生的事件以及对被发现负有责任的官员、党员和其他人的惩罚。这些卷册已被转录并以36卷可搜索的电子文件的形式出版，原始18卷中的每一卷分为2卷（Song 2016）。³

从叙述性描述中提取数据

此前对这一时期的研究借鉴了通过编码已出版的地方志中的信息而编制的数据集。Walder和Su（2003）分析了来自1500多个农村县志的数据。Su（2011）从包括广西在内的三个省份的187部地方志中提取了数据。Walder（2014, 2019）、Walder和Lu（2017）以及Walder和Chu（2020）分析了一个来自2246部地方志的数据集，覆盖了97%的地方管辖区。

内部报告中的细节远远超过了已出版的史书。广西出版物平均用9.8页（定义为每页500个汉字）来描述从1966年中期到1971年底发生的事件。调查报告平均用37页来描述从1966年中期到1969年底发生的事件。已出版的史书包含560起冲突事件的报告，平均每个管辖区6.5起。调查报告描述了4938起事件，平均每个管辖区57起，叙述细节是原来的九倍。

最终的数据集包含三种类型的变量。第一种是来自统计手册和其他出版物的6个城市和80个县的各种人口、组织和地理特征。第二种记录了仅发生一次的政治事件的时间，追溯了当地政治进程的演变：例如，反叛团体的首次出现、对地方政府的权力攫取、政治派别的形成、军队的首次干预以及地方政府的重建。很少有地方缺少关于此类事件的信息。第三种信息更难编码，因为对重复发生的事件的描述非常丰富。从地方历史中稀疏的描述中提取的编码方案采用了少量的广泛编码类别（Walder 2014, 2019）。更丰富的叙述描述在将特定事件分配到类别时造成了困境，并引发了关于事件定义的问题。

为了在数据集中保留尽可能多的叙述细节，每个冲突事件都沿三个不同的维度进行编码。第一个是对描述的行动“最能表征”的27个类别的分类。较窄的类别用于简单的动作，而较宽的类别用于更复杂的事件

³The author has copies of the original volumes. Citations in this article are to the originals.

³作者拥有原始卷的副本。本文中的引文均引自原始卷。

sequences. For example, if individuals are seized and imprisoned by an opposed faction, the action is categorized as “arrest/imprisonment.” If arrests are described as taking place in the wake of a battle between armed factions, the action is categorized as “armed battle.” If the arrests are described as taking place as part of a suppression campaign, the action is categorized as one of several types of “campaign.” The general rule is that broader event categories can contain actions that are covered in the narrow categories, but the narrower events are not coded as broader categories. This retains flexibility for analysts to combine different categories according to distinctions that are relevant to a specific question. For each action, the numbers killed, injured, or otherwise harmed are recorded, if such figures are provided. If no figures are provided, 0 is entered.

Each event is also coded on two other dimensions—the actors that carried it out, and who suffered. Because more than one type of actor is often mentioned, up to three types of actors can be recorded for each event. The same is true for “harmed parties.” This permits the analyst to distinguish between types of killings—for example, when the actor is the local militia and the harmed parties are members of a losing faction, or when the actors are members of the community, and the harmed parties are stigmatized households. The first would indicate a coordinated campaign; the second would indicate collective behavior. Third, if the description permits, each event is coded based on location in a town or a village.

Finally, the temporal definition of an event is flexible. Accounts sometimes describe a specific action on one day, a series of days, a week, or an entire month. All are recorded as an action, but to distinguish them the starting and ending dates are recorded. The coding of action types, actors, harmed parties, and starting and ending dates provide flexibility while preserving as much detail as possible. To ensure that an event is counted only once, an additional code indicates whether an event on one day or several days overlaps with a more broadly defined event in the same location. The full dataset contains variables that describe 4,938 events.⁴

The Scale of Violence and Variation in Death Rates

These materials document far more casualties than published histories, which reported a total of 55,651 deaths (Walder 2019: 214–16). The confirmed death total, set at 89,810 (Guangxi Party Committee 1987, 7: 127), was 62 percent higher than numbers reported in published histories. This implies a death rate of 3.6 per thousand, 71 percent higher than the national figure (excluding Guangxi) of 2.0 (Walder 2019: 191). In addition to the documented deaths, there were close to 20,000 people who disappeared and were unaccounted for, and their deaths could not be confirmed (Yan 2012). The strict controls over population movement and rationing make it unlikely that many of them fled and remained undetected. If we assume that roughly half of the “missing” were killed, the overall death toll would be close to 100,000, a provincial death rate of close to 4.0 per thousand, double the death rate for the rest of China.⁵

⁴Details are available from the author. The dataset and documentation will be posted for public use, accessible through the author’s university web page, one year after the publication of this article.

⁵The investigators did not include the missing in the official death totals, but their report to the central authorities expressed confidence that the true number was likely above 100,000 (Song 2020: 86–88).

序列。例如，如果个人被敌对派系抓捕和监禁，该行为被归类为“逮捕/监禁”。如果逮捕被描述为发生在武装派系之间战斗之后，则该行为被归类为“武装战斗”。如果逮捕被描述为镇压运动的一部分，则该行为被归类为几种类型的“运动”之一。一般规则是，更广泛的事件类别可以包含狭窄类别中涵盖的行为，但更狭窄的事件不会被编码为更广泛的类别。这保留了分析师根据与特定问题相关的区分来组合不同类别的灵活性。对于每个行为，如果提供了死亡、受伤或以其他方式受到伤害的人数，则会记录这些数字。如果没有提供数字，则输入 0。

每个事件还在另外两个维度上进行编码——执行它的行为者和遭受伤害的人。因为经常提到不止一种类型的行为者，所以每个事件最多可以记录三种类型的行为者。“受害方”也是如此。这使得分析师可以区分不同类型的杀戮——例如，当行为者是当地民兵而受害方是失败派系的成员时，或者当行为者是社区成员而受害方是被污名化的家庭时。前者表明这是一场协调的运动；后者表明是集体行为。第三，如果描述允许，则每个事件都根据城镇或村庄中的位置进行编码。

最后，事件的时间定义是灵活的。描述有时会描述一天的特定行动、一系列天、一周或整个月。所有这些都记录为一项行动，但为了区分它们，会记录开始和结束日期。行动类型、行为者、受害方以及开始和结束日期的编码提供了灵活性，同时尽可能多地保留细节。为了确保一个事件只被计算一次，一个额外的代码指示一天或几天的事件是否与同一地点更广泛定义的事件重叠。完整的数据集包含描述 4,938 个事件的变量。⁴

暴力规模与死亡率变化

这些材料记录的伤亡人数远远超过已出版的历史资料，后者报告的总死亡人数为 55,651 人（Walder 2019: 214–16）。经确认的死亡总数为 89,810 人（广西党委 1987, 7: 127），比已出版历史资料中报告的数字高出 62%。这意味着每千人的死亡率为 3.6，比全国（不包括广西）的 2.0 高出 71%（Walder 2019: 191）。除了有记录的死亡人数外，还有近 20,000 人失踪且下落不明，他们的死亡无法得到证实（Yan 2012）。对人口流动和配给的严格控制使得他们中的许多人逃离且未被发现的可能性不大。如果我们假设大约一半的“失踪”者被杀，那么总死亡人数将接近 100,000 人，省级死亡率接近千分之 4.0，是中国其他地区死亡率的两倍。⁵

⁴详细信息可从作者处获得。数据集和文档将在本文发表一年后发布供公众使用，可通过作者的大学网页访问。⁵调查人员没有将失踪人员纳入官方死亡总数，但他们向中央当局提交的报告表示，他们有信心实际数字可能超过 100,000 人（Song 2020: 86–88）。

Before turning to the political processes thought to generate high death tolls, I will briefly revisit Su's findings, based on published local histories, that large ethnic minority populations were associated with fewer deaths, while large Hakka populations were associated with higher ones. We need to be clear that we are asking not whether violence may have expressed group antagonisms, but why death rates were higher in Guangxi than elsewhere. If death rates in Guangxi were higher due to its mixed population of ethnic and subethnic groups, then these differences should also be apparent *within* Guangxi. It should be precisely in those subregions of Guangxi where these groups predominated, or where they existed in mixed communities, that the violence was most intense. If this was not the case, then the reasons for Guangxi's unusually high death rates must rest elsewhere, whatever the micro-level connections between local history, culture, and the manifestation of conflict in thousands of villages.

Prior findings that implicated Hakka were based on evidence that considered Guangxi together with Guangdong (Su 2011). There are 15 counties in Guangdong that historically have been almost entirely Hakka-speaking. Roughly 35 percent of Guangdong's population was Hakka.⁶ There were only two counties in Guangxi with a bare Hakka majority, and Hakka constituted only 9 percent of the provincial population.⁷ Even if Hakka communities were prone to more intense group conflict, they could only marginally have inflated Guangxi's death rates.⁸

Preliminary examination of mean death rates across localities defined by population characteristics (not shown) suggests little support for the idea that violence was more intense in Guangxi due to ethnic diversity. The 10 counties where Hakka were more than 20 percent of the population had considerably *lower* death rates (2.6 per thousand) than the provincial average of 3.6.⁹ Localities where the Han comprised 70 to 93 percent of the population had higher than average death rates (4.2 per thousand), while localities that were almost completely Han (above 93 percent) had markedly lower death rates (3.0 per thousand). There are wide variations in death rates within each category, cautioning against drawing conclusions based on raw averages. Not surprisingly, in regression models that include each of these categories with a control for local population size (not shown here), none of these categories has a statistically significant impact on local death counts.¹⁰ I will further

⁶This is based on contemporary sources that put the Hakka population at 21 million out of a total provincial population of 59 million, and it assumes that the proportion has been stable in recent decades: <https://baike.baidu.com/item/广东民系/3782255>, accessed January 18, 2021.

⁷This is an estimate. Data on the percentage of Hakka in the population of Guangxi's counties and cities is from the website http://www.360doc.com/content/11/0109/17/164198_85241080.shtml, accessed January 11, 2021.

⁸An additional problem is that Guangxi's death rates were much higher than in Guangdong, where the Hakka population was four times larger.

⁹The average death rate is 3.0 in the 20 counties with greater than 10 percent Hakka populations.

¹⁰The models estimated in this article are negative binomial regressions, appropriate for count data. The other commonly employed model for count data is Poisson regression, which is appropriate only when the dependent variable is not highly dispersed, with a variance that is not much higher than its mean. The dependent variable in this dataset—total local deaths—is extremely dispersed. The mean is 955 and the variance is 548,540. When the dependent variable is dispersed, Poisson regressions underestimate the standard errors of the estimates and attribute erroneously high levels of statistical significance to variables, or “false positives” (Ryan et al. 2018).

在探讨导致高死亡人数的政治过程之前，我将简要回顾苏的研究结果，这些结果基于已出版的当地历史，表明大量少数民族人口与较少的死亡人数相关，而大量的客家人人口与较高的死亡人数相关。我们需要明确的是，我们不是在询问暴力是否可能表达了群体间的对抗情绪，而是在询问为什么广西的死亡率高于其他地方。如果广西的死亡率较高是由于其民族和亚民族群体混杂的人口造成的，那么这些差异也应该在广西内部显现出来。恰恰应该是在广西的那些以这些群体为主，或者这些群体混合居住的次区域，暴力最为激烈。如果情况并非如此，那么广西异常高的死亡率的原因一定在于其他方面，无论当地历史、文化与数千个村庄中冲突的表现形式之间存在何种微观层面的联系。

先前将客家人牵涉其中的研究结果是基于将广西与广东一起考虑的证据（苏 2011）。广东有 15 个县历史上几乎完全是客家语区。大约 35% 的广东人口是客家人。⁶ 广西只有两个县有明显的客家人口多数，客家人仅占全省人口的 9%。⁷ 即使客家社区更容易发生更激烈的群体冲突，他们也只能略微提高广西的死亡率。⁸

对按人口特征定义的地区（未显示）的平均死亡率的初步检查表明，几乎没有证据支持由于民族多样性导致广西的暴力更加激烈的观点。客家人占人口 20% 以上的 10 个县的死亡率（千分之 2.6）远低于全省平均水平千分之 3.6。⁹ 汉族人口占 70% 至 93% 的地方的死亡率高于平均水平（千分之 4.2），而几乎完全是汉族（93% 以上）的地方的死亡率明显较低（千分之 3.0）。每个类别内的死亡率差异很大，提醒人们不要根据原始平均值得出结论。不足为奇的是，在包括每个类别并控制当地人口规模（此处未显示）的回归模型中，这些类别对当地死亡人数都没有统计学上的显著影响。¹⁰ 我将进一步

⁶This is based on contemporary sources that put the Hakka population at 21 million out of a total provincial population of 59 million, and it assumes that the proportion has been stable in recent decades: <https://baike.baidu.com/item/广东民系/3782255>, accessed January 18, 2021.

⁷This is an estimate. Data on the percentage of Hakka in the population of Guangxi's counties and cities is from the website http://www.360doc.com/content/11/0109/17/164198_85241080.shtml, accessed January 11, 2021.

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¹⁰The models estimated in this article are negative binomial regressions, appropriate for count data. The other commonly employed model for count data is Poisson regression, which is appropriate only when the dependent variable is not highly dispersed, with a variance that is not much higher than its mean. The dependent variable in this dataset—total local deaths—is extremely dispersed. The mean is 955 and the variance is 548,540. When the dependent variable is dispersed, Poisson regressions underestimate the standard errors of the estimates and attribute erroneously high levels of statistical significance to variables, or “false positives” (Ryan et al. 2018).

consider ethnic diversity in regression models later in this article, but this preliminary analysis suggests that the features that caused Guangxi to depart from other regions are more likely to lie with distinctive political processes that were common across subregions, whatever the composition of their populations.

Political Processes

We now turn to an understanding of the political processes responsible for Guangxi's higher death rates. The idea that high death tolls across Guangxi were generated by intergroup violence is based on a series of observations drawn from published local histories:

- Factional conflicts between Guangxi's two rebel alliances were limited primarily to urban districts and were largely absent in villages.
- Rural killings were carried out by covillagers spurred by the rhetoric of urban authorities, instigating violence against neighbors in stigmatized households.
- Armed battles between factions generated a small percentage of the death tolls, and the remainder were unrelated to factional conflicts.
- Killings within villages were not carried out by agents of the state but were the product of collective behavior in villages.
- Killings were more severe in remote counties with weaker party-state structures, permitting intergroup violence to spiral out of control.

I propose an alternative political process that brings into the foreground the factional conflicts that are obscured in analyses that posit collective killings as intergroup violence in isolated rural communities. The evidence gleaned from investigation reports portrays the killings as part of a coordinated counterinsurgency campaign by the military hierarchy and its village militia, which targeted factional activists and those in stigmatized households, the latter as suspected collaborators. This emerges from the following observations based on the new materials, which contrast with each of those enumerated above

- Conflict between Guangxi's two political factions was present in almost every city and county, and the related conflicts frequently extended into rural districts.
- Rural killings were part of an organized province-wide campaign coordinated by government committees and occurring in a concentrated period.
- While armed factional battles generated a small percentage of the deaths, many if not most of those killed in villages were active members of factions or their relatives.
- Killings in villages were ordered from above and implemented by village militias that were part of the provincial military and political apparatus.
- Death rates were lower in remote regions and localities with weaker local party-state structures, places where the reach of the state was more limited.

The idea that stigmatized households were collateral damage in a highly organized counterinsurgency campaign makes better sense of a wave of killings that

本文稍后将考虑回归模型中的民族多样性，但这项初步分析表明，导致广西与其他地区不同的特征更可能在于各次区域普遍存在的独特政治过程，无论其人口构成如何。

政治过程

现在我们来了解导致广西死亡率更高的政治过程。广西各地高死亡人数是由群体间暴力造成的这一观点，是基于从已出版的地方史志中得出的一系列观察结果：

- 广西两大反叛联盟之间的派系冲突主要局限于城市地区，在乡村地区则基本不存在。
- 农村地区的杀戮是由同村人受城市当局言论的刺激而进行的，煽动对受污名家庭的邻居实施暴力。
- 派系之间的武装战斗仅造成了死亡人数的一小部分，其余的则与派系冲突无关。
- 村庄内的杀戮并非由国家机关实施，而是村庄集体行为的产物。
- 在党政结构较弱的偏远县，杀戮更为严重，这使得群体间暴力失控。

我提出了另一种政治过程，将派系冲突置于最前沿，而这些冲突在将集体杀戮假定为孤立农村社区中的群体间暴力的分析中被掩盖了。从调查报告收集到的证据表明，这些杀戮是军事阶层及其乡村民兵发起的有组织的平叛运动的一部分，该运动针对派系积极分子和受污名家庭，后者被怀疑为合作者。这一点从以下基于新材料的观察中可以得出，这与上面列举的每一项都形成对比

- 广西两大政治派系之间的冲突几乎存在于每个城市和县，相关的冲突经常蔓延到农村地区。
- 农村地区的杀戮是由政府委员会协调并在集中时间内发生的有组织的省级运动的一部分。
- 虽然武装派系战斗仅造成了死亡人数的一小部分，但即使不是大多数，许多在村庄中被杀的人都是派系的积极成员或他们的亲属。
- 村庄中的杀戮是由上级下令，并由作为省级军事和政治机构一部分的村庄民兵实施的。
- 在地方党政结构较弱的偏远地区和地方，死亡率较低，这些地方国家的触角更加有限。

污名化的家庭是在高度有组织的平叛运动中的附带损害的想法，更好地解释了一波杀戮

occurred within a concentrated period in a large region of 25 million. Had these actions depended on thousands of independently generated instances of collective behavior at the village level, it is unlikely that they would have been more common than elsewhere in China.

The Structure of Factional Divisions

Guangxi's political conflicts involved two factional alliances—the “Allied Command” (*lian zhi*) and “April 22” (4.22, or *si.erer*). They originated in March 1967 in Nanning and spread throughout the province by the end of that year. As elsewhere in China, they began as local disputes between rival rebel coalitions in the wake of power seizures over local governments. Power seizures spread rapidly after a January 22, 1967, call issued from Beijing for rebels to “seize power” (Walder 2019: 79–107; Walder and Lu 2017). Guangxi closely followed the national pattern. Power seizures spread rapidly, starting with the provincial government on January 23. Within one week, the governments of close to 60 percent of all cities and counties were overthrown by rebels, and by the end of March, 75 percent.

Precisely because power seizures spread rapidly, only a fraction of rebels were included. This led to protests by excluded rebels, and mutual denunciation and conflict (Walder and Chu 2020). Disagreements hardened when military units arrived under orders from Beijing to “support the left” and consolidate new structures of power. This forced military units to intervene in rebel disputes, causing a political realignment. Rebels favored by military commanders aligned with them; rebels not favored challenged them, and they could be met with arrests and bans that declared them “reactionary.” This shifted the axis of conflict: from disputes among rebels over power seizures to alignments of rebel groups for and against military units. It also raised the stakes of conflicts because rebels who lost out could expect to suffer from imprisonment or discrimination by new military-backed authorities (Walder 2019: 116–26).

The militarized structure of the Chinese party-state facilitated rapid and thorough intervention, ensuring that rebel cleavages spread widely. China's armed forces were organized for defense and internal security. Each level of government was paralleled by a military jurisdiction: provinces were generally coterminous with military districts (*jun qu*) of the People's Liberation Army (PLA) and prefectures and large cities with military subdistricts (*jun fen qu*). Counties and small cities were coterminous with People's Armed Departments (*renmin wuzhuang bu*), or PAD. The PADs were headed by a serving PLA officer and staffed by a small number of military police. The PAD's subordinate branches commanded citizen militia forces (*min bing*) (Dong and Walder 2021: 15–17). In rural counties, military intervention was usually led by a PLA officer who was the head or political commissar of the PAD (Nelsen 1972). Beijing's orders for the PLA to “support the left” made the PAD the sole branch of local government immune from overthrow, giving its leaders the authority to rule on the conflicting claims of rival rebels. By the end of April 1967, military intervention had reached almost all localities in Guangxi. These military units assumed the functions of local government in anticipation of the eventual formation of a new power structure—a “revolutionary committee.”

发生在 2500 万人口的大区域内的集中时期。如果这些行动依赖于村级层面数千个独立产生的集体行为实例，那么它们在中国其他地方的普及程度不太可能超过其他地方。

派系分裂的结构

广西'的政治冲突涉及两个派系联盟——“联合指挥部”(*lian zhi*)和“4.22”(4.22, 或 *sierer*)。它们起源于1967年3月的南宁,并在当年年底蔓延到整个省。与中国其他地方一样,它们最初是地方政府权力争夺后,敌对的叛乱联盟之间的局部争端。1967年1月22日,北京发出呼吁,要求叛乱分子“夺权”(Walder 2019: 79–107; Walder and Lu 2017)。广西紧随国家模式。夺权迅速蔓延,从1月23日的省政府开始。在一周内,近60%的城市和县的政府被叛军推翻,到3月底,这一比例达到了75%。

正因为夺权迅速蔓延,只有一小部分叛乱分子被纳入其中。这导致被排除在外的叛乱分子提出抗议,并相互谴责和冲突(Walder and Chu 2020)。当军事单位奉北京的命令抵达“支持左派”并巩固新的权力结构时,分歧加剧。这迫使军事单位介入叛乱分子的争端,导致政治重新调整。受军事指挥官青睐的叛乱分子与他们结盟;不受青睐的叛乱分子挑战他们,他们可能会受到逮捕和禁令,宣布他们是“反动派。”这改变了冲突的轴心:从叛乱分子之间关于夺权的争端转变为叛乱团体支持和反对军事单位的结盟。这也提高了冲突的风险,因为失败的叛乱分子可能会遭受监禁或受到新的军事支持当局的歧视(Walder 2019: 116–26)。

中国党国的军事化结构促成了迅速而彻底的干预,确保了反叛分裂的广泛蔓延。中国的'武装部队是为国防和内部安全而组织的。各级政府都与一个军事管辖区平行:省通常与人民解放军(PLA)的军区(军区)重合,而专区和大城市与军分区(军分区)重合。县和小城市与人民武装部(人民武装部)重合。武装部由一名现役解放军军官领导,并由少数武警组成。武装部的下属部门指挥民兵(民兵)(董和沃尔德 2021: 15–17)。在农村县,军事干预通常由担任武装部部长或政治委员的解放军军官领导(尼尔森 1972)。北京'要求解放军“支持左派”的命令,使武装部成为唯一免于被推翻的地方政府部门,使其领导人有权对敌对反叛分子的相互冲突的主张作出裁决。到1967年4月底,军事干预几乎已到达广西的所有地区。这些军事单位承担了地方政府的职能,以期待最终形成一种新的权力结构——一个“革命委员会。”

The structure of military forces had direct implications for the factional battles and wave of killings that spread across Guangxi. Civilian rebels aligned with military forces—at the county level, the PAD—had an initial advantage in fighting units, which was concentrated in villages. In many counties the PAD's favored faction coordinated with them so closely that it was difficult to distinguish the favored rebel faction from the PAD's rural militias.

The Formation of Factional Alliances

The province-wide alliances that became known as Allied Command and April 22 originated with the disintegration of the provincial power seizure coalition in Nanning in early February. A group of rebels who were part of that power seizure withdrew, denounced the rebels who led it, and mobilized to challenge it. The PLA unit that intervened to “support the left” initially supported the power seizure, but later withdrew that support in favor of the rebels who withdrew (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 15–20).

These tensions deepened after Beijing placed Guangxi under military control in late March, awaiting the formation of a new government (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 22). The person chosen to head military control forces—Wei Guoqing—had been Guangxi's Provincial Governor since 1955, and its First Party Secretary since 1961 (Guangxi Organization Department 1995: 423, 426, 430, 514; Organization Department, CCP Central Committee 2004: 805). Guangxi was the only instance in which Beijing designated an incumbent provincial leader to head the military control forces. The civilian government long headed by Wei Guoqing was overthrown in the late January power seizure, and all rebel factions had earlier targeted him as the head of Guangxi's “bourgeois reactionary line.” Wei's surprising appointment ran directly counter to the radical Maoism that inspired the rebel campaign across China, and it forced Nanning rebels into difficult choices. Radical figures in Beijing were opposed to Wei's appointment and worked behind the scenes to mobilize opposition and force his removal. Their emissaries in Nanning made common cause with the rebels whose power seizure had lost the PLA's initial support, and they mobilized other provincial leaders in the succeeding weeks to declare their opposition to Wei and their support for anti-Wei rebels. The highest-ranking such official, Wu Jinnan, was the third-ranking party official in Guangxi at the outset of the Cultural Revolution, and he became the figurehead of the opposition rebel faction. This opposition was coordinated behind the scenes by members of Beijing's Central Cultural Revolution Group who objected to the way that military forces were imposing order across China (Guangxi Party Committee 1987, 18: 17–35, 49–53).

There were clear geopolitical motives for the retention of Wei, and they ran counter to the radical impulses that inspired the rebel campaign. The most obvious was that Guangxi bordered Vietnam and was the staging area for China's efforts to provide support against a rapidly escalating American war effort. Wei Guoqing retired as a General in the PLA in the mid-1950s. Wei was not just any veteran PLA commander. In the final years of his military career, he forged deep ties with Vietnam's civilian and military leaders. He headed China's military support group

军队的结构直接影响了席卷广西的派系斗争和杀戮浪潮。与军队结盟的平民叛军——在县级层面，即人民武装部——在战斗单位方面具有初步优势，这些战斗单位集中在村庄。在许多县，人民武装部偏袒的派系与他们配合得非常密切，以至于很难区分受偏袒的叛军派系与人民武装部的农村民兵。

派系联盟的形成

被称为“联指”和“四·二二”的全省联盟，起源于2月初南宁省夺权联盟的瓦解。一群参与夺权的叛军退出，谴责领导夺权的叛军，并动员起来挑战它。介入以“支持左派”的解放军部队最初支持夺权，但后来撤回了对退出叛军的支持（《广西文化大革命纪事》1990: 15–20）。

3月下旬，北京将广西置于军事管制之下，等待新政府的成立（《广西文化大革命纪事》1990: 22），这些紧张关系进一步加剧。被选为军事管制部队负责人的人——韦国清——自1955年以来一直担任广西省省长，自1961年以来一直担任第一书记（广西组织部1995: 423、426、430、514；中共中央组织部2004: 805）。广西是北京指定现任省级领导人领导军事管制部队的唯一例子。由韦国清长期领导的民选政府在一月下旬的夺权中被推翻，所有叛军派系此前都将他作为广西的“资产阶级反动路线”的头目来攻击。韦的令人惊讶的任命直接与激励中国各地叛军运动的激进毛主义背道而驰，这迫使南宁叛军做出艰难的选择。北京的激进人物反对韦的任命，并在幕后动员反对，迫使其下台。他们在南宁的特使与那些在夺权中失去解放军最初支持的叛军结成联盟，他们在接下来的几周内动员其他省级领导人宣布他们反对韦并支持反韦叛军。级别最高的官员吴晋南是文化大革命开始时广西排名第三的党委官员，他成为反对派叛军派系的首脑。这次反对是在幕后由北京中央文革小组的成员协调的，他们反对军队在中国各地实施秩序的方式（广西党委1987, 18: 17–35, 49–53）。

保留韦国清有明确的地缘政治动机，这与激发叛乱活动的激进冲动背道而驰。最明显的是，广西与越南接壤，是中国为支持迅速升级的美国战争而努力的集结地。韦国清于20世纪50年代中期从中国人民解放军退役。韦不仅仅是一位普通的解放军老将。在他军事生涯的最后几年，他与越南的文职和军事领导人建立了深厚的联系。他领导了中国的军事支援小组

to the Vietnamese Communists during their war against the French in the early 1950s. He is credited with having provided military advice that led to key victories, in particular the strategy that led to the surrender of French forces at Dien Bien Phu (Chen 2001: 118–44; Li 2019: 108–29; Zhai 2000: 45 and 74).

The geopolitical motivations for Wei's retention were openly stated. When Zhou Enlai appointed Wei to head military control forces, he explicitly mentioned Guangxi's role in the front line of Vietnam's struggle against American military aggression (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 22). Whatever the domestic agenda of the Cultural Revolution, armed resistance against imperialism was a core element of Maoist ideology, influencing Beijing's decisions regarding Wei. This forced Guangxi's rebels to make difficult choices, irrevocably splitting them.

The formation of the Allied Command and April 22 factions followed shortly after a dozen former members of the Guangxi Party Committee, led by Wu Jinnan, declared at a rally on April 19 that they were opposed to the appointment of Wei Guoqing. Wu's statement was distributed in news sheets and handbills. Inspired by his statement, rebels staged a mass demonstration in opposition to Wei in Nanning on April 22, and the ensuing coalition took that date as its name. Rebel groups across Guangxi who opposed the decisions of local PLA and PAD commanders declared their support for Wu Jinnan, while those favored by local military units pledged support for Wei. These declarations resonated with rebels in rural counties, even though the substance of local disputes had no direct relationship to the political disputes in Nanning. The PADs were part of a provincial hierarchy that reached upward through military subdistricts to the Guangxi Military District, led by Wei Guoqing. They were obligated to declare support for Wei, their superior in the provincial hierarchy. This was the foundation on which province-wide factional alliances were built—rebel groups favored by the local PAD pledged support for Wei and became known as the Allied Command; their rivals pledged support for Wu and became known as the April 22 faction. This structured the factional rivalries across Guangxi.

Beijing acknowledged these splits in early May, ordering delegations of rebel leaders, regional officials, and military officers to come to the nation's capital to negotiate. These negotiations, and the new orders to the military, legitimized the April 22 faction, which had the support of radical figures in the national leadership. The negotiations dragged on until mid-November 1967, when a compromise settlement was imposed on the factions, who were sent home with orders to finalize arrangements for a Revolutionary Committee. Local factions steadily aligned themselves with either the April or Allied Command faction throughout this period, and by the end of 1967, almost every locality had factions that were openly aligned with either the April or Allied Command coalitions.

The Geographic Distribution of Factional Activity

Were the conflicts between the April 22 and Allied Command factions largely confined to cities and county seats? Data extracted from the investigation reports permit a closer look.

在 20 世纪 50 年代初越南共产党抗击法国的战争期间，他向越南共产党提供了帮助。他被认为是提供了军事建议，促成了关键的胜利，特别是导致法国军队在奠边府投降的战略（Chen 2001: 118–44; Li 2019: 108–29; Zhai 2000: 45 和 74）。

韦留任的地缘政治动机是公开声明的。当周恩来任命韦为军事管制负责人时，他明确提到了广西在越南抗击美国军事侵略斗争中的前线作用（《广西文革纪事》1990: 22）。无论文化大革命的国内议程如何，反对帝国主义的武装抵抗是毛主义意识形态的核心要素，影响了北京关于韦的决定。这迫使广西的造反派做出艰难的选择，使他们彻底分裂。

在吴晋南率领的十几名广西党委前成员于 4 月 19 日的一次集会上宣布他们反对任命韦国清后不久，联合指挥部和 4·22 派系成立。吴的声明以新闻稿和传单的形式分发。受他的声明启发，造反派于 4 月 22 日在南宁举行大规模示威，反对韦，随后的联盟以该日期命名。广西各地反对当地解放军和人武部指挥官决定的造反派团体宣布支持吴晋南，而那些受到当地军事单位支持的团体则承诺支持韦。这些声明引起了农村县份造反派的共鸣，即使当地争端的实质与南宁的政治争端没有直接关系。人武部是省级层级结构的一部分，该结构通过军分区向上延伸至韦国清领导的广西军区。他们有义务声明支持韦，即他们在省级层级结构中的上级。这是全省派系联盟建立的基础——受当地人武部支持的造反派团体承诺支持韦，并被称为联合指挥部；他们的对手承诺支持吴，并被称为 4·22 派系。这构成了广西各地的派系对抗。

北京在五月初承认了这些分裂，命令反叛领导人、地区官员和军官代表团前往首都进行谈判。这些谈判，以及对军队的新命令，使“4·22”派合法化，该派得到了国家领导层激进人物的支持。谈判一直拖到 1967 年 11 月中旬，当时对各派系强加了一项妥协协议，他们被命令回家敲定革命委员会的安排。在此期间，地方派系稳步地与“4·22”派或“联指”派结盟，到 1967 年底，几乎每个地方都有公开与“4·22”联盟或“联指”联盟结盟的派系。

派系活动的地理分布

“4·22”派和“联指”派之间的冲突是否主要局限于城市和县城？从调查报告中提取的数据可以更仔细地观察。

Table 1. Distribution of factional activity and related deaths, urban versus rural locations

Location	Number of Events	Percent of Events	Number of Deaths	Percent of Deaths
Cities	308	19.6	5,165	33.3
Counties	1,262	80.4	10,331	66.7
<i>Total</i>	<i>1,570</i>	<i>100</i>	<i>15,496</i>	<i>100</i>
<i>Within Counties</i>				
Urban	706	55.9	2,207	21.4
Rural	530	42.0	2,980	28.8
Unspecified	26	2.1	5,144	49.8
<i>Total</i>	<i>1,262</i>	<i>100</i>	<i>10,331</i>	<i>100</i>

Notes: Defined as events in which one or both rebel factions is/are named as an actor or harmed party.

The investigation reports contain accounts of a range of events that involve one or both factions. There were 1,570 such events in the dataset. They include armed battles and a wide range of other kinds of events: protest demonstrations or marches; raids on arms depots, storehouses, or buildings; attacks on government officials or military units; the taking of prisoners; nonviolent confrontations; unarmed street fighting; isolated killings of opponents; and the violent suppression of one or another faction. The defining feature of this group of events is that the April 22 or Allied Command factions are named as participants.

Table 1 indicates that factional activity was widespread in rural counties. Four-fifths of all factional conflicts recorded in these materials occurred in counties, as did two-thirds of the related deaths. More relevant is the distribution of factional activity *within* rural counties. If the described event took place in the county seat or another large town, it is recorded as urban. If it took place in rural districts or villages, it is recorded as rural. The bottom panel of table 1 reveals that most events took place in urban settings, but that a great many—42 percent—occurred in rural districts. More deaths resulted from the factional conflicts in rural than urban settings. There were 26 events that generated close to half of all reported deaths—these were summary statements for an entire county. If we can assume that the locations in these summary accounts were roughly the same as the more than 1,000 events whose location is known, it appears that most deaths generated by factional activity occurred in rural districts.

These numbers indicate that factional conflicts reached well into the rural districts of counties. The rural districts were not isolated from the province-wide factional rivalries, despite the impressions derived from published local histories. This overall conclusion, however, raises yet another question. The figures in table 1 are averages, and they surely mask wide variations across counties. How many counties had factional conflict that penetrated well into rural regions, and in how many were these conflicts largely absent?

There are 1,236 events in counties in table 1 whose location is known, which over the 80 counties yields an average of 15.4 per county: 8.8 in urban districts and 6.6 in rural districts. These averages mask wide variations. In the top quarter of the

表 1. 派系活动和相关死亡的分布，城市与乡村地区

地点	事件数量	事件百分比	死亡人数	死亡百分比
城市	308	19.6	5,165	33.3
县	1,262	80.4	10,331	66.7
总计	1,570	100	15,496	100
县内				
城市	706	55.9	2,207	21.4
农村	530	42.0	2,980	28.8
未指定	26	2.1	5,144	49.8
总计	1,262	100	10,331	100

Notes: Defined as events in which one or both rebel factions is/are named as an actor or harmed party.

调查报告包含了一系列涉及一方或双方派别的事件的描述。数据集中有 1570 起此类事件。它们包括武装战斗和各种其他类型的事件：抗议示威或游行；袭击军火库、仓库或建筑物；袭击政府官员或军事单位；抓捕俘虏；非暴力对抗；徒手街头斗殴；孤立地杀害对手；以及暴力镇压一方或另一方派别。这组事件的定义特征是“四二二”或“联指”派别被指名为参与者。

表 1 表明派别活动在农村县份中很普遍。这些材料中记录的所有派别冲突中有五分之四发生在县里，与之相关的死亡人数也有三分之二。更相关的是派别活动在农村县份内的分布。如果所描述的事件发生在县城或另一个大城镇，则记录为城市。如果它发生在农村地区或村庄，则记录为农村。表 1 的底部面板显示，大多数事件发生在城市环境中，但有很多——42%——发生在农村地区。农村地区的派别冲突造成的死亡人数多于城市地区。有 26 起事件导致了近一半的报告死亡人数——这些是整个县的总结性陈述。如果我们假设这些总结性描述中的地点与 1000 多起已知地点的事件大致相同，那么似乎由派别活动造成的大多数死亡都发生在农村地区。

这些数字表明，派别冲突深入到各县的农村地区。尽管从已出版的地方史中获得的印象并非如此，但农村地区并未与全省范围内的派别对抗隔绝。然而，这个总体结论又提出了另一个问题。表 1 中的数字是平均值，它们肯定掩盖了各县之间的巨大差异。有多少县的派别冲突深入到农村地区，又有多少县的派别冲突基本上不存在？

在表 1 的县中，有 1,236 个已知地点的事件，这 80 个县的平均值为每个县 15.4 个：城市地区为 8.8 个，农村地区为 6.6 个。这些平均值掩盖了广泛的差异。在最上面的四分之一

distribution, there were 20 counties with a minimum of 22 events and a maximum of 61. In this group, there was an average of just under 15 factional events in rural districts. In these counties, factional conflict was pervasive and extended deeply into rural districts. In the bottom quarter of the distribution the picture is completely different. In these 20 counties there was a maximum of six events and minimum of one, with an average of less than one event in rural districts (11 reported none). In these counties there was little factional conflict, almost none in rural districts. Suppression campaigns in these counties would have found few factional opponents to target, and presumably the brunt would have fallen on the stigmatized households. Between these extremes are 40 counties that reported a total of between 7 and 22 events, and an average of five to six in rural districts. Factional conflict was evident in these counties, reaching into rural districts to a moderate degree.

In short, it appears that somewhere between one-fifth to one-third of counties had pervasive factional conflict that extended deeply into rural districts. But a roughly equal number of counties had little factional conflict, largely confined to county seats. Between these two extremes was a larger group where factional conflict was common in county seats and somewhat less prevalent in rural districts. This wide spectrum of variation defies simple characterization, but it suggests that in the rural districts of most counties there was ample factional opposition to target in suppression campaigns, while in a substantial minority there was little if any factional activity, potentially leaving the stigmatized households to bear the brunt.

Perpetrators and Victims

There remain two final questions: Who were the actors named as perpetrators in killings, and who were their victims? Table 2 tabulates the number of times various actors are named in event descriptions. Different actors are named 4,929 times. Up to three actors could be recorded for each event, so these are counts of the total number of times that different actors are mentioned. The overwhelming majority of events and associated deaths are actions by military, security, or government authorities, often in coordination with the Allied faction. Revolutionary committees, People's Armed Departments, public security departments, rural militia, poor peasants' associations, leading cadres, and the heads of communes and brigades were named in more than 37,000 killings. The Allied faction was involved in almost 21,000. The April faction was implicated in fewer than 5,000 deaths. Actors under the command of the Guangxi Military District or the Allied faction were involved in more than 90 percent of reported deaths.

Who were the victims? Table 3 indicates that the largest single group by far were individuals associated with the April faction—more than half of those killed. More than three times as many individuals associated with the April faction were mentioned than the second-largest group, the politically stigmatized households. To be sure, it is likely that members of politically stigmatized households were also counted in other categories. They could be charged with membership in counter-revolutionary organizations, or they could be identified as “masses.” However, this is also true for those associated with the April 22 faction. The enormous imbalance in the death tolls of the two factions further reinforces the conclusion that the killings

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从分布情况来看,至少有20个县发生了22起事件,最多有61起。在该组中,农村地区平均发生了略低于15起的派系事件。在这些县里,派系冲突普遍存在,并深入到农村地区。在分布的末尾四分之一处,情况则完全不同。在这20个县中,最多发生了6起事件,最少1起,农村地区平均发生不到1起事件(11个县报告没有)。在这些县中,派系冲突很少,农村地区几乎没有。在这些县开展的镇压运动中,几乎找不到可以针对的派系对手,因此,想必镇压的矛头会指向被污名化的家庭。在这两个极端之间,有40个县报告的事件总数为7到22起,农村地区平均为5到6起。在这些县中,派系冲突很明显,并在一定程度上蔓延到农村地区。

简而言之,似乎有五分之一到三分之一的县发生了普遍的派系冲突,并深入到农村地区。但大致相同数量的县几乎没有派系冲突,主要局限于县城。在这两个极端之间,有更大的一群县,县城的派系冲突很常见,但在农村地区则不那么普遍。这种广泛的变化范围难以简单概括,但它表明,在大多数县的农村地区,有充足的派系反对势力可以成为镇压运动的目标,而在相当一部分少数县中,几乎没有任何派系活动,这可能会让被污名化的家庭首当其冲。

施害者与受害者

还剩下最后两个问题:在杀戮事件中,哪些行为者被指名为施害者?谁是受害者?表2列出了各种行为者在事件描述中被提及的次数。不同的行为者被提及了4929次。每个事件最多可以记录三个行为者,因此这些是不同行为者被提及的总次数的计数。绝大多数事件和相关的死亡是军事、安全或政府当局的行动,通常与“联指”派系协调进行。“革命委员会”、“人民武装部”、公安部门、农村民兵、贫下中农协会、主要干部以及公社和生产大队负责人被指控参与了37000多起杀戮事件。“联指”派系参与了近21000起事件。“四二二”派系与不到5000人的死亡有关。在广西军区或“联指”派系指挥下的行为者参与了超过90%的报告死亡事件。

谁是受害者?表3表明,迄今为止,最大的群体是与“四二二”派有关的个人——超过一半的死者是与“四二二”派有关的人。提到与“四二二”派有关的个人数量是第二大群体(政治上受歧视的家庭)的三倍多。可以肯定的是,政治上受歧视的家庭成员也可能被归入其他类别。他们可能被指控为反革命组织的成员,或者他们可能被认定为“群众”。然而,对于那些与“四二二”派有关的人来说,情况也是如此。两个派别死亡人数的巨大不平衡进一步强化了以下结论:杀戮

Table 2. Identities of the Killers

Actors	Number of Events (percent)	Deaths (percent)
Authorities	2,992 (60.7)	37,397 (58.6)
Of which:		
Revolutionary Committees	1,060	19,312
Security/Military	553	11,999
Rural Militia/Peasants Assoc./Pickets	888	8,436
Commune/brigade	99	4,051
“Cadres”	1,117	14,659
Allied faction	818 (16.6)	20,961 (32.9)
April faction	560 (11.4)	4,716 (7.4)
Red Guards/Rebels	435 (8.8)	319 (0.5)
“Masses”	124 (2.5)	386 (0.6)
Total	4,929 (100)	63,779 (100)

in Guangxi were a coordinated suppression campaign in which one faction was systematically liquidated, with “bad class” households intentionally swept up in the process.

Before we draw broad conclusions about the general character of mass killings in Guangxi, however, we need to keep in mind that these numbers are averages across 80 counties and 6 cities. It is possible that politically stigmatized households may have been the primary targets in many localities. If we sum the numbers displayed in table 3 by jurisdiction, we can calculate the ratio of those killed in the politically stigmatized categories versus the April faction (stigmatized household deaths/[stigmatized household + April faction deaths]). The results show that there are many localities where the killings focused almost exclusively on politically stigmatized households. At the median, 40 percent of the reported deaths were from stigmatized households, but there was wide local variation. In the top quintile, at least 90 percent of the reported dead were identified with the stigmatized households; in the bottom quintile, at least 99 percent were identified with the April faction. In 14 localities, *all* those killed were in the April faction; in 8 localities, *all* the reported killed were in politically stigmatized households.

These figures suggest that Su’s (2011) portrayal of local pogroms against “bad classes,” although greatly underestimating the impact of factional conflict in rural

表 2. 杀人者的身份

行动者	事件数量 (百分比)	死亡人数 (百分比)
机关单位	2,992 (60.7)	37,397 (58.6)
其中:		
革命委员会	1,060	19,312
安全 / 军事	553	11,999
农村民兵 / 农民协会 / 纠察队	888	8,436
公社 / 大队	99	4,051
“干部”	1,117	14,659
同盟派	818 (16.6)	20,961 (32.9)
四二二派	560 (11.4)	4,716 (7.4)
红卫兵 / 造反派	435 (8.8)	319 (0.5)
“群众”	124 (2.5)	386 (0.6)
总计	4,929 (100)	63,779 (100)

在广西，这是一场有组织的镇压运动，其中一个派系被系统地清洗，其中“坏阶级”家庭被故意卷入其中。

在对广西的大规模屠杀的一般性质得出广泛结论之前，我们需要记住这些数字是 80 个县和 6 个城市的平均值。在许多地方，政治上受污名化的家庭可能是主要目标。如果我们将表 3 中按司法管辖区显示的数字相加，我们可以计算出政治上受污名化的类别与“四·二二”派的死亡人数之比（受污名化的家庭死亡人数/[受污名化的家庭 + “四·二二”派的死亡人数]）。结果表明，在许多地方，屠杀几乎完全集中在政治上受污名化的家庭。中位数显示，40% 的报告死亡人数来自受污名化的家庭，但地方差异很大。在前五分之一中，至少 90% 的报告死亡人数被确认为受污名化的家庭；在后五分之一中，至少 99% 被确认为“四·二二”派。在 14 个地方，所有被杀的人都是“四·二二”派；在 8 个地方，所有报告的被杀者都是政治上受污名化的家庭。

这些数字表明苏（2011）对当地针对“坏阶级”的迫害的描述，虽然大大低估了宗派冲突对农村的影响

Table 3. Identities of the Victims

Identity	Number of Events (Percent)	Deaths (Percent)
Politically stigmatized households	482 (13.7)	7,295 (15.2)
Underground counterrevolutionary groups	120 (3.4)	6,968 (14.5)
“Masses”	779 (22.2)	6,365 (13.3)
April faction	768 (21.8)	25,347 (52.9)
Allied faction	216 (6.1)	4,620 (9.6)
Cadres	967 (27.5)	3,643 (7.6)
Total	3,516	47,924

communities, does characterize a significant proportion of rural counties. However, even in these regions, the killings were part of a province-wide mobilization to suppress the April faction, and the perpetrators were overwhelmingly associated with political and military hierarchies. Politically stigmatized households were explicitly considered part of the April faction's alleged conspiracy to overthrow the communist regime. If there were few April faction adherents—or if they had been eliminated earlier—the campaign would fall onto stigmatized households, who were present everywhere. If the process spun out of control, it was not intergroup violence, but local militia who were exhorted by their superiors to identify and eliminate suspected conspirators who sought to overthrow the regime.

Escalating Violence as a Political Process

Deadly violence in Guangxi was generated by a flow of events that affected the balance of forces between the Allied and April factions. From May through October 1967 the Beijing negotiations between leaders of the two factions failed to reach a resolution. In August 1967, during a nationwide rebel offensive against military control sanctioned by radical figures in Beijing, the April faction appeared to have gained favor. One of Mao's radical associates indicated during private meetings in July that the April faction would be vindicated. Zhou Enlai signaled the tilt toward the April faction in a meeting shortly afterward, alarming the Allied Command and causing several local PLA units to withdraw their support for that faction (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 44–50).

In September, however, the tide turned. Mao purged the radicals in Beijing who had encouraged attacks on the military (the ones who had favored the April faction).

表 3. 受害者身份

身份	事件数量 (百分比)	死亡人数 (百分比)
政治上有污点的家庭	482 (13.7)	7,295 (15.2)
地下反革命组织	120 (3.4)	6,968 (14.5)
“群众”	779 (22.2)	6,365 (13.3)
四月派	768 (21.8)	25,347 (52.9)
同盟派系	216 (6.1)	4,620 (9.6)
干部	967 (27.5)	3,643 (7.6)
总计	3,516	47,924

社区确实是农村县的一个重要特征。然而，即使在这些地区，杀戮也是全省范围内镇压“四·二二”派的动员的一部分，而行凶者绝大多数与政治和军事等级制度有关。在政治上受污名化的家庭被明确认为是“四·二二”派阴谋颠覆共产主义政权的一部分。如果“四·二二”派的追随者很少，或者他们早已被铲除，那么这场运动就会落到到处存在的受污名化的家庭身上。如果这个过程失控，那就不是群体间的暴力，而是地方民兵在他们的上级的 exhortation 下，去识别和消灭那些试图颠覆政权的嫌疑阴谋者。

作为政治进程的暴力升级

广西的致命暴力是由一系列事件造成的，这些事件影响了“联指”和“四·二二”派之间的力量平衡。1967年5月至10月，北京举行的两派领导人之间的谈判未能达成决议。1967年8月，在北京激进人物批准的全国范围内针对军事控制的反叛攻势中，“四·二二”派似乎获得了青睐。毛的一位激进助手在7月份的私人会议上表示，“四·二二”派将得到平反。周恩来在随后的会议中发出了向“四·二二”派倾斜的信号，这令“联指”指挥部感到震惊，并导致当地一些解放军部队撤回了对该派的支持（《广西文革大事年表》1990: 44–50）。

然而，9月份，形势发生了转变。毛泽东清洗了北京那些鼓励攻击军队的激进分子（那些支持“四·二二”派的人）。

He then leaned decisively toward military commanders and decreed the rapid establishment of revolutionary committees in the 22 provinces still under military control (Schoenhals 2005; Walder 2015: 253–58). The two sides were pressured to settle their disputes. A document issued in November (Central Committee 1967) pronounced what was intended as the final verdict on the “Guangxi Question.” It stated that both sides had committed errors but had made acceptable self-criticisms. The two sides were now forced to cooperate as a “Preparatory Committee” to establish a revolutionary committee (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 55–57). Wei Guoqing remained as head of the Preparatory Committee, which signaled that he would be retained as the head of Guangxi. This was a barely concealed defeat for the April faction.

It would take almost another year before Guangxi’s new government was established. The agreement forged under pressure in Beijing fell apart almost immediately. As it became apparent that new local governments would soon be formed, PAD officers and Allied Command fighters in rural counties, relying on their control of militia forces, moved preemptively to weaken rivals who might gain positions on local revolutionary committees. The first reports of the armed suppression of the April faction reached Nanning near the end of November. The worst incidents were in Yulin Prefecture, where more than 200 were killed in three counties.

The April faction mobilized to resist, and armed battles between the two sides escalated, despite the cease-fire. The April faction staged large protests at the Military District Headquarters in Nanning, demanding a halt to the rural killings. The Preparatory Committee and Military District issued orders calling for them to stop but did nothing to enforce them. Alarmed, the April faction in Nanning escalated their attacks on Wei and the military commanders and seized arms to prepare for battle (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 60–63).

The inaction of the Military District and the armed mobilization of the April faction provoked additional suppressions by the Allied faction and PAD in rural counties, to preempt any rebound by the April faction. During January and February 1968, 392 were killed in Fangcheng County and 278 were killed in Hepu County. In February, the brief truce between the two sides collapsed. Instead of acting to curtail the rural suppressions, military officers on the committee blamed the April faction for provoking them, and angrily refuted charges that they were secretly directing the rural killings.

The military officers on the Preparatory Committee then made accusations that would intensify the massacres and cause them to spread further. They charged that the April faction was sabotaging a plan approved by Mao in direct contravention of his instructions. This was a “black line” promoted by the scheming of capitalist roaders in concert with former class enemies overthrown in the revolution. In province-wide meetings of military officers, they announced that traitors, spies, and class enemies were sabotaging local revolutionary committees. The Preparatory Committee sent reports to Beijing that blamed the April faction for the violence, and they seeded the reports with charges that they were acting in concert with former Nationalists and landlords. A propaganda campaign spread these accusations through *Guangxi Daily* and the provincial radio network (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 67–74).

他随后果断地倾向于军事指挥官，并下令迅速在仍在军事控制下的 22 个省份建立革命委员会（Schoenhals 2005；Walder 2015: 253–58）。双方被迫解决争端。11 月发布的一份文件（中央委员会 1967）宣布了对“广西问题”的最终判决。它指出，双方都犯了错误，但都做了可以接受的自我批评。现在，双方被迫作为一个“筹备委员会”进行合作，以建立革命委员会（《广西文化大革命纪事》1990: 55–57）。韦国清仍然担任筹备委员会主任，这表明他将继续担任广西的负责人。这对“四·二二”派来说是一场几乎没有掩饰的失败。

广西新政府的建立又花了一年时间。在北京的压力下达成的协议几乎立即瓦解。随着新的地方政府即将成立，农村地区的“四·二二”派官员和联合指挥部战士依靠对民兵部队的控制，先发制人地削弱了可能在地方革命委员会中获得职位的竞争对手。11 月底，关于武装镇压“四·二二”派的首次报告传到了南宁。最严重的事件发生在玉林地区，三个县有 200 多人丧生。

“四·二二”派动员起来进行抵抗，尽管达成了停火协议，但双方之间的武装战斗仍在升级。“四·二二”派在南宁军区总部举行了大规模抗议活动，要求停止农村地区的杀戮。筹备委员会和军区发布命令，呼吁他们停止，但没有采取任何措施来执行这些命令。南宁的“四·二二”派感到震惊，加紧了对韦国清和军事指挥官的袭击，并夺取武器准备战斗（《广西文化大革命纪事》1990: 60–63）。

军区的不作为以及“四·二二”派的武装动员，引发了“联指”和支联会在农村地区进行更多的镇压，以阻止“四·二二”派的反弹。1968 年 1 月和 2 月，防城县有 392 人被杀，合浦县有 278 人被杀。2 月份，双方短暂的休战宣告破裂。委员会中的军方官员没有采取行动遏制农村地区的镇压，反而指责“四·二二”派挑衅，并愤怒地驳斥了他们秘密指挥农村地区屠杀的指控。

随后，筹备委员会的军方官员提出了将加剧屠杀并使其进一步蔓延的指控。他们指责“四·二二”派破坏了毛批准的一项计划，直接违反了他的指示。这是“黑线”由走资本主义道路的当权派与革命中被推翻的昔日阶级敌人勾结策划的。在全省军官会议上，他们宣布叛徒、间谍和阶级敌人正在破坏地方革命委员会。筹备委员会向北京提交报告，指责“四·二二”派制造暴力事件，并在报告中加入他们与前国民党和地主勾结的指控。一场宣传运动通过《广西日报》和省级广播电台网络传播了这些指控（《广西文革纪事》1990: 67–74）。

This prompted the April faction to form “field armies” for self-defense, and they denounced the local revolutionary committees as armed coups by the Allied faction. As the fighting and accusations escalated, in March 1968 the Preparatory Committee, relying on People’s Armed Departments and rural militia, accelerated the establishment local revolutionary committees through brute force. The process was accompanied by killings of April faction adherents, their family members, and their alleged supporters in “reactionary” households. By early May, only nine localities had yet to establish revolutionary committees. During this period there were more than 100 killings in 13 counties. The highest death counts were in Tiandeng (1,584), Luchuan (933), Mashan (570), Qinzhou (518), and Hepu (461).

The Preparatory Committee ignored the rising tide of killings and responded to resistance by the April faction by holding mass rallies to denounce them as class enemies. They began to claim that the April faction, in collaboration with historical class enemies, was planning massacres of communists. In dispatches sent to Beijing, the Preparatory Committee claimed that the April faction was seizing weapons and killing large numbers. In mid-May they reported the discovery of a counterrevolutionary organization linked to the Nationalist Party on Taiwan, with connections all over the province, which was plotting to overthrow the Communist Party in coordination with the April faction. In June they launched a campaign to expose and liquidate members of this counterrevolutionary network (Guangxi Cultural Revolution Chronology 1990: 78–90). The final push to rebuild political order in Guangxi would become an offensive against a conspiracy that linked April faction fighters with historical counterrevolutionaries in politically stigmatized households. Stubborn resistance by armed April faction fighters, concentrated in Nanning and Guilin, prevented the establishment of Guangxi’s revolutionary committee. The final nine local revolutionary committees were not established until August, and Guangxi’s Revolutionary Committee, one of the last in China, was not established until August 26.

This was accomplished through a final spasm of violence sanctioned by Beijing. Having lost patience with the course of events, Mao approved the July 3 Orders that instructed the crushing of resistance. They embraced the false claims made in Nanning’s dispatches. Continued resistance was said to be the work of “traitors, spies, counter-revolutionaries along with landlords, rich peasants, counter-revolutionaries, bad elements, and rightists.” The document listed acts of resistance by the April faction, and then observed: “The Center considers these as counter-revolutionary crimes committed by a small group of class enemies to sabotage the dictatorship of the proletariat, sabotage the struggle to resist America and aid Vietnam, and sabotage the Great Proletarian Cultural Revolution” (Central Committee 1968).

Modeling Death Rates

The evidence presented so far indicates that Guangxi’s high death rates were a product of a suppression campaign carried out by local authorities, in particular the village militia under People’s Armed Departments. The campaigns targeted April 22 insurgents where that group was most active and focused on stigmatized households

这促使“四二二派”组建“野战军”进行自卫，他们谴责地方革命委员会是“联指”派发动的武装政变。随着战斗和指责的升级，1968年3月，筹备委员会依靠人民武装部和农村民兵，通过暴力手段加速建立地方革命委员会。在这一过程中，伴随着对“四二二派”追随者、他们的家人以及他们在“反动”家庭中所谓的支持者的杀戮。到5月初，只有9个地方尚未建立革命委员会。在此期间，有13个县发生了100多起杀戮事件。死亡人数最多的是田东（1,584人）、陆川（933人）、马山（570人）、钦州（518人）和合浦（461人）。

筹备委员会无视不断上涨的杀戮浪潮，并通过举行群众集会谴责“四二二派”为阶级敌人来回应他们的抵抗。他们开始声称，“四二二派”与历史上的阶级敌人勾结，正计划对共产党人进行大屠杀。在发往北京的电报中，筹备委员会声称“四二二派”正在夺取武器并杀害大量人员。5月中旬，他们报告说，发现了一个与台湾国民党有关联的反革命组织，该组织在全省都有联系，阴谋与“四二二派”协调推翻共产党。6月，他们发起了一场运动，以揭露和清算该反革命网络的成员（《广西文革大事年表》1990:78–90）。重建广西政治秩序的最后努力将演变成一场反对阴谋的攻势，该阴谋将“四二二派”战士与政治上受污名化的家庭中的历史反革命分子联系起来。集中在南宁和桂林的武装“四二二派”战士的顽强抵抗，阻止了广西‘省革命委员会’的建立。最后九个地方革命委员会直到8月才成立，广西‘省革命委员会’是中国最后一个成立的省革委会之一，直到8月26日才成立。

这是通过北京批准的最后一次暴力痉挛来实现的。由于对事态发展失去了耐心，毛批准了7月3日命令，指示粉碎抵抗。他们接受了南宁’的电报中提出的虚假主张。据说持续的抵抗是“叛徒、间谍、反革命分子以及地主、富农、反革命分子、坏分子和右派分子”所为。该文件列举了四二二派的抵抗行为，然后指出：“中央认为这些是阶级敌人中的一小撮人犯下的反革命罪行，目的是破坏无产阶级专政，破坏抗美援朝斗争，破坏无产阶级文化大革命”（中央委员会 1968）。

死亡率建模

到目前为止提供的证据表明，广西高死亡率是地方当局，特别是人民武装部下属的村民兵进行镇压运动的结果。这些运动针对的是四二二派叛乱分子，尤其是在该团体最活跃的地区，并集中针对受污名化的家庭

where they were largely absent. The suppressions intensified over time, beginning with the push to establish local revolutionary committees in March 1968. The killings reached a crescendo in July and August in the wake of the July 3 Orders.

This portrayal of the political processes that generated Guangxi's unusually large death tolls hinges on a claim that the massacres were carried out by actors connected to political and military structures. It implies that death rates increased over time and were related to efforts to establish local revolutionary committees. It also implies that they should be higher where local party-state structures were strong, and lower where they were weak.

In his study of rural killings in Guangxi and Guangdong, Yang Su argued that geographically remote regions (measured as distance from the provincial capital) would be more weakly monitored by party-state authorities, and that it would be in these regions that intergroup violence would spiral out of control. He also offered a direct measure of party-state capacity—the number of party members or government cadres in a locality. Like the measure of geographic remoteness, lower numbers of party members or cadres would indicate a weaker capacity to restrain community violence, and higher death tolls. However, if rural killings were carried out by party-state authorities and their village militia, the prediction for both measures would be the opposite—geographically remote regions, and localities where party-state structures were *less* well staffed, should if anything have *lower* death rates.

Geographic remoteness can be indicated by distance from political centers, in this case distance from the prefecture seat, the immediately higher level of administration. This measure varies from 0 (in the case of prefecture seats) to 340 kilometers.¹¹ The correlation of this measure with local death rates is close to zero, so any relationship is not linear, and we should examine the most distant localities for differences from the provincial mean.¹² A second measure of remoteness is more straightforward—whether the jurisdiction is on the provincial border. There are 31 counties and 2 cities that lie along Guangxi's border with other provinces or Vietnam. Almost all are along mountain ranges and were poorly accessible by modern road networks.

The strength of local party-state structures can be expressed as the number of party members or administrative cadres as a percentage of the local population. The rate of party membership ranged from 1.0 to 3.5 percent. The correlation of this measure with the local death rate is close to zero. Cadre numbers relative to local population range from .09 to 2.7 percent. There is a small positive correlation between this measure and death rates that is not statistically significant. Any detectable differences are likely to be at the extremes of the distributions.

An examination of average death rates in the top quintiles for urbanization, school enrollments, cadres per capita, party members per capita, distance from prefecture seat, and location in a border region (not shown) found that only two of these categories deviate substantially from the provincial average, and both have

¹¹This is linear distance calculated from GPS coordinates, the measure employed in a previous publication (Walder and Lu 2017: 1159–60). Su (2011: 232) used distance from the provincial capitals of Nanning and Guangzhou.

¹²The correlation is not improved by a log transformation of the variable.

在很大程度上，他们并没有参与其中。镇压行动随着时间的推移而加剧，始于1968年3月建立地方革命委员会的行动。在7月3日命令发布后，7月和8月的屠杀达到了顶峰。

这种对导致广西异常高死亡率的政治进程的描述，取决于一种说法，即大屠杀是由与政治和军事结构相关的行为者进行的。这意味着死亡率随着时间的推移而增加，并且与建立地方革命委员会的努力有关。这也意味着，在地方党政机构强大的地方，死亡率应该更高，而在机构薄弱的地方，死亡率应该更低。

杨苏在对广西和广东农村地区屠杀事件的研究中认为，地理位置偏远的地区（以与省会城市的距离衡量）将受到党政机关的较弱监控，并且在这些地区，群体间暴力将失控。他还直接衡量了党政机关的能力——一个地方的党员或政府干部的数量。与地理偏远程度的衡量标准一样，较少的党员或干部人数将表明约束社区暴力的能力较弱，以及更高的死亡人数。然而，如果农村地区的屠杀是由党政机关及其乡村民兵进行的，那么对这两种衡量标准的预测将相反——地理位置偏远的地区，以及党政机关工作人员配备不足的地区，死亡率应该更低。

地理偏远程度可以用与政治中心的距离来表示，在本例中，即与专区所在地（直接上级行政单位）的距离。该指标的范围从0（专区所在地）到340公里不等。¹¹该指标与当地死亡率的相关性接近于零，因此任何关系都不是线性的，我们应该检查最偏远地区与省级平均水平的差异。¹²另一种衡量偏远程度的方法更为直接——即该管辖区是否位于省界。有31个县和2个市位于广西与其他省份或越南的边界上。几乎所有都位于山脉沿线，并且现代公路网络难以到达。

地方党政机构的实力可以用党员人数或行政干部占当地人口的百分比来表示。党员比例从1.0%到3.5%不等。这一指标与当地死亡率的相关性接近于零。相对于当地人口，干部人数的比例从0.09%到2.7%不等。这一指标与死亡率之间存在很小的正相关关系，但没有统计学意义。任何可以察觉的差异可能都出现在分布的极端值上。

对城市化率、入学率、人均干部数、人均党员数、距地级市所在地距离以及位于边境地区（未显示）等指标的前五分之一的平均死亡率进行考察后发现，只有两类指标与全省平均水平有显著偏差，且都具有

¹¹这是根据GPS坐标计算的线性距离，是之前出版物（Walder和Lu 2017: 1159–60）中使用的度量方法。Su（2011: 232）使用了到南宁和广州省会城市的距离。¹²对该变量进行对数转换并不能提高相关性。

the same implications. The death rates for localities with the highest numbers of cadres per capita—presumably indicating stronger party-state structures—had average death rates (5.1 per thousand) far above the provincial average. Guangxi's border regions, presumably where the reach of the party-state was weaker, had average death rates (2.7 per thousand) well below the provincial average. These differences are what we would expect to find if party-state agents in localities mobilized suppression campaigns, and they are the opposite of what we would expect if intergroup violence in rural communities spun out of their control.

Guangxi's distinctive political trajectory also implies a time trend of escalating death tolls over time. Suppression campaigns were related to efforts to establish and consolidate revolutionary committees. A plausible measure of this time trend would be the timing of a local revolutionary committee's establishment. Localities that established revolutionary committees earlier would suffer lower death rates than localities where they were established later. The timing of a local revolutionary committee, measured as the time lag before it was established, can be considered an indicator of the political processes responsible for high death rates.

Average death rates increased markedly in localities where local revolutionary committees were delayed. The 46 jurisdictions where revolutionary committees were established in March 1968 had average death rates of 2.9 per thousand—well above the average elsewhere in China (2.0) but still below the provincial average of 3.6. In the 31 localities where this occurred in the following month, the average death rate was 3.8, close to the provincial rate. In the final nine jurisdictions where the revolutionary committee was delayed until August, the average death rate reached 6.5 per thousand, almost double the provincial average.

We need to consider more carefully the logical relationship between levels of deadly violence and the timing of a revolutionary committee. I am suggesting that death rates are a consequence of timing—the later that a revolutionary committee was established, the more deadly the violence that was applied, and the higher the local death rates. However, the reverse may be true: that revolutionary committees were established later in localities that were already suffering the worst violence. If so, the timing of a revolutionary committee could be a consequence of levels of deadly violence, not the other way around.

This is essentially a question about *when* high death tolls occurred. If they were already high in the months before a revolutionary committee was established, then this might have delayed it. If, however, high death tolls were a function of a time trend of increasing violence on the part of authorities, the highest death tolls would be concentrated during the period that the committee was established.

Figure 1 compares monthly death tolls from January to October 1968 across three groups of localities, during the period when almost all the recorded deaths occurred. The numbers are indexed with the largest monthly death count as one, with other months expressed as a proportion of that number.¹³ The three graphs show that the death tolls were highly concentrated later in time in the localities where revolutionary committees were established in August. This group suffered their highest death tolls by far during two consecutive months, July and August,

¹³The average number of reported deaths per locality at the high point of each is roughly comparable—it is 153 for the March group, 189 for the April group, and 141 for the August group.

同样的含义。人均干部数量最多的地方（可能表明党政结构更强）的死亡率远高于全省平均水平（千分之 5.1）。广西的边境地区，可能党政的影响力较弱，平均死亡率（千分之 2.7）远低于全省平均水平。如果我们发现地方党政人员动员镇压行动，就会预期出现这些差异，而如果农村社区的群体间暴力失控，则会与我们的预期相反。

广西独特的政治轨迹也暗示了死亡人数随时间推移而上升的趋势。镇压行动与建立和巩固革命委员会的努力有关。衡量这一时间趋势的一个合理方法是地方革命委员会成立的时间。早些成立革命委员会的地方的死亡率低于晚些成立的地方。地方革命委员会成立的时间，以成立前的滞后时间来衡量，可以被认为是造成高死亡率的政治过程的指标。

在地方革命委员会推迟成立的地方，平均死亡率显著增加。1968 年 3 月成立革命委员会的 46 个管辖区的平均死亡率为千分之 2.9，远高于中国其他地区的平均水平（千分之 2.0），但仍低于全省平均水平（千分之 3.6）。在接下来一个月发生这种情况的 31 个地方，平均死亡率为千分之 3.8，接近全省平均水平。在革命委员会推迟到 8 月的最后 9 个管辖区，平均死亡率达到千分之 6.5，几乎是全省平均水平的两倍。

我们需要更仔细地考虑致命暴力程度与革命委员会成立时间之间的逻辑关系。我认为死亡率是时间的结果——革命委员会成立得越晚，使用的暴力就越致命，地方死亡率就越高。然而，事实可能恰恰相反：革命委员会在已经遭受最严重暴力的地方成立得更晚。如果是这样，革命委员会成立的时间可能是致命暴力程度的结果，而不是相反。

这本质上是一个关于高死亡人数何时出现的问题。如果革命委员会成立之前的几个月死亡人数已经很高，那么这可能会延迟它的成立。然而，如果高死亡人数是当局暴力行为不断升级的时间趋势的结果，那么最高的死亡人数将集中在委员会成立期间。

图 1 比较了 1968 年 1 月至 10 月三个地区每月死亡人数，几乎所有记录在案的死亡都发生在这段时间内。这些数字以最大的月死亡人数为 1 进行索引，其他月份表示为该数字的比例。¹³ 这三张图显示，8 月份成立革命委员会的地区，死亡人数在时间上高度集中在后期。这一群体在连续的两个月，即 7 月和 8 月，遭受了迄今为止最高的死亡人数，

¹³每个地区高峰时期的平均报告死亡人数大致相当——3 月份的群体为 153 人，4 月份的群体为 189 人，8 月份的群体为 141 人。

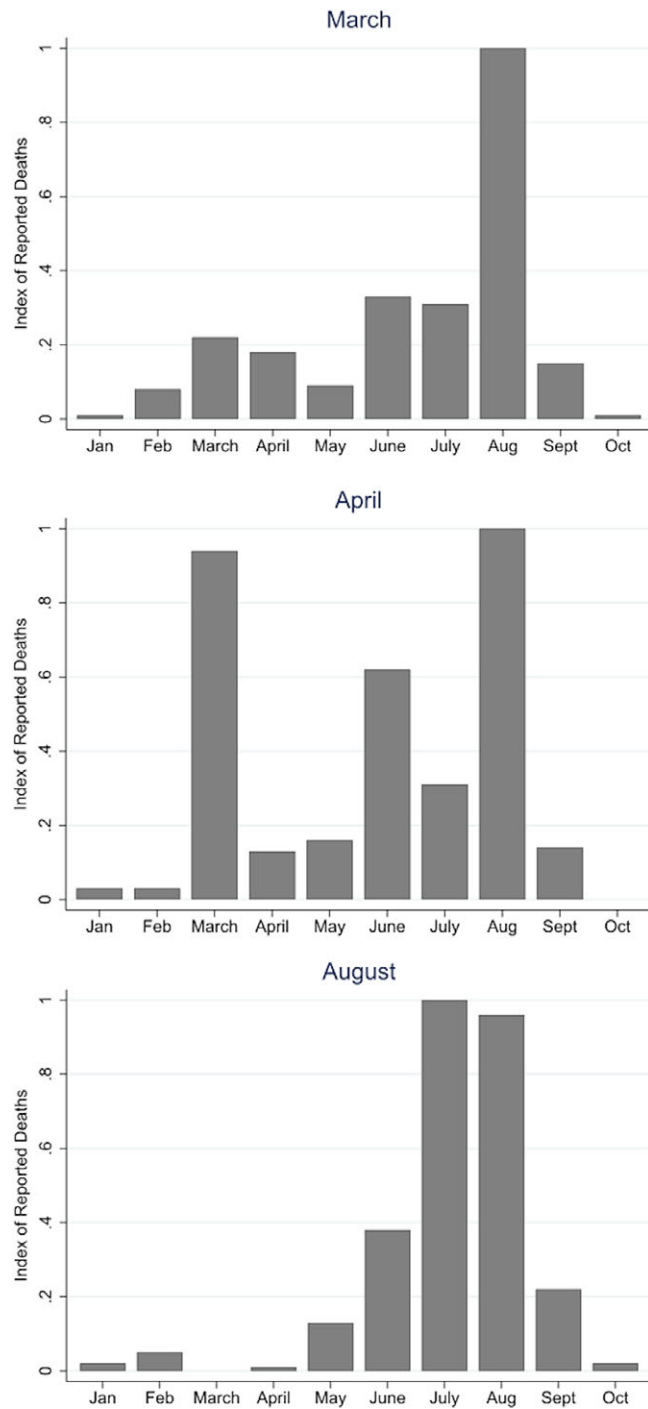


Figure 1. Index of monthly death tolls by month of Revolutionary Committee, 1968.

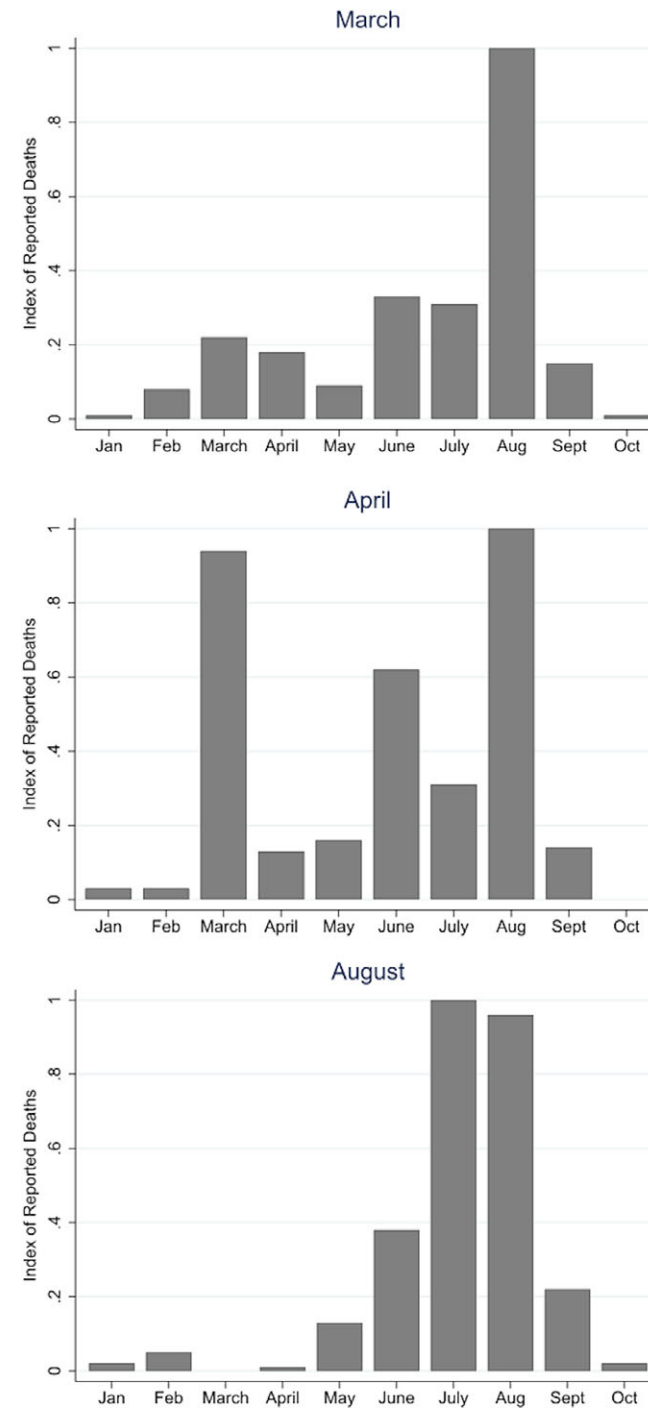


图 1. 1968 年各月革命委员会每月死亡人数指数。

bearing the full brunt of the July 3 Orders. The localities with early revolutionary committees also experienced large spikes in death tolls during August, reflecting the impact of the July 3 Orders. However, both groups suffered far more deaths in the period from February through June than did the August holdouts. The second wave of killings in the places where revolutionary committees were established much earlier is what pushed them, and the rest of Guangxi, to death rates far above the national average.

What, then, delayed the establishment of a revolutionary committee? The most likely reason is the continued strength of a local April faction insurgency. Recall that factional conflict, whether armed or not, generated only small percentages of the death tolls. As one might expect, the localities that established revolutionary committees late reported more activity by the April faction over the entire period from March 1967 to the end of 1968. Among the localities that established a revolutionary committee in March, there was an average of 10 reported actions by the April 22 faction; in the next month's group, there was 15; and in the August group, 24.¹⁴ Although these numbers are surely inflated where the suppression campaigns were delayed, we can be confident that prior high death rates did not delay a revolutionary committee.

Table 4 displays regression results that examine the joint impact of ethnic composition, local state strength, remoteness, and the political time trend. All models include local population, which varies from 41,000 to 800,000, measured as units of 100,000, as a control variable, which turns the other coefficients into measures of a variable's impact on local death rates. The urban population, which varies from 1,500 to 363,000, is included as a control variable in units of 10,000, because it is correlated with the strength of party and government organizations as well as with location in a border region. The models include two of the variables for local ethnic population and several measures of remoteness. The time trend is defined as the number of days after January 1 that the local revolutionary committee was established. It ranges from 66 (March 7) to 239 (August 27). The variable "lag days to revolutionary committee" is designed to capture the intensifying repression that was applied to their formation.

The results indicate that the only characteristic of local populations that has a measurable impact on death rates is level of urbanization, which is a direct measure of nonagricultural development.¹⁵ The more urbanized the population, the lower the death rate. In the full equation estimated in column 4, each increment of 10,000 in urban population is associated with a 5 percent lower death rate (.95). A county with an urban population of 30,000 at the 75th percentile would have a predicted death rate that is only 85.7 percent as high as a county with 10,000 urban residents at the 25th percentile ($.95^3 = .857$). Other things being equal, less developed rural regions had higher death rates.

If the killings were generated by an organized campaign, the death tolls should be lower in more remote regions and where party-state structures were less well staffed.

24 社会科学史

首当其冲地承受了 7 月 3 日命令的全部冲击。早期成立革命委员会的地方在 8 月份的死亡人数也出现了大幅上升, 反映了 7 月 3 日命令的影响。然而, 从 2 月到 6 月这段时间里, 这两类地方的死亡人数都远远高于 8 月份的坚守者。在革命委员会成立较早的地方发生的第二波杀戮, 将它们以及广西其他地区的死亡率推高到远高于全国平均水平。

那么, 是什么延迟了革命委员会的建立呢? 最可能的原因是当地 “四月派” 叛乱势力的持续存在。回想一下, 派系冲突, 无论是否是武装冲突, 只造成了很小比例的死亡人数。正如人们可能预料的那样, 那些较晚成立革命委员会的地方报告说, 从 1967 年 3 月到 1968 年底, 四月派的活动更加频繁。在 3 月份成立革命委员会的地方, 4 月 22 日派的行动平均报告了 10 起; 在下个月的小组中, 有 15 起; 而在 8 月份的小组中, 有 24 起。¹⁴ 虽然在镇压运动被推迟的地方, 这些数字肯定被夸大了, 但我们可以确信, 先前的高死亡率并没有延迟革命委员会的成立。

表 4 显示了回归结果, 考察了民族构成、地方政权力量、偏远程度和政治时间趋势的共同影响。所有模型都包括地方人口, 其变化范围为 41,000 到 800,000, 以 100,000 为单位进行衡量, 作为控制变量, 这使得其他系数成为衡量变量对当地死亡率的影响。城市人口的变化范围为 1,500 到 363,000, 也以 10,000 为单位作为一个控制变量纳入其中, 因为它与党和政府组织的力量以及在边境地区的位置相关。这些模型包括当地民族人口的两个变量和几个偏远程度的指标。时间趋势定义为当地革命委员会成立后, 自 1 月 1 日起的天数。它的范围从 66 天 (3 月 7 日) 到 239 天 (8 月 27 日)。变量 “革命委员会的滞后天数” 旨在捕捉对他们形成施加的日益加强的镇压。

结果表明, 对死亡率有可衡量影响的当地人口的唯一特征是城市化水平, 这是非农业发展的直接衡量标准。¹⁵ 人口越城市化, 死亡率越低。在第 4 列估计的完整方程中, 城市人口每增加 10,000 人, 死亡率就会降低 5% (.95)。城市人口在第 75 个百分位为 30,000 的县的预测死亡率仅为城市居民在第 25 个百分位为 10,000 的县的 85.7% ($.95^3 = .857$)。在其他条件相同的情况下, 欠发达的农村地区的死亡率更高。

如果杀戮是由有组织的运动引起的, 那么在更偏远的地区以及党政机构人员配备不足的地方, 死亡人数应该会更少。

¹⁴ 当所考虑的行动是平民派别之间的武装战斗时, 也会出现类似的进展。¹⁵ 在数据集中, 城市人口几乎与非农业工人数量完全相关 (.96)。

¹⁴ There is a similar progression when the action considered is an armed battle between civilian factions.

¹⁵ In the dataset, urban population is almost perfectly correlated with the number of nonagricultural workers (.96).

Table 4. Negative binomial regression estimates of local deaths (incident rate ratios; z-scores in parentheses)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Total population/100,000	1.26*** (5.1)	1.15† (1.7)	1.20* (2.3)	1.20* (2.4)
Urban population/10,000	.995 (-0.35)	.957* (-2.3)	.957** (-2.6)	.950** (-2.8)
Han majority	1.34 (1.5)			1.21 (1.0)
Significant Hakka population (>20 percent)	.822 (-0.85)			
Distance to prefecture seat/100 kilometers		1.12 (0.9)		
Number of cadres/1,000		1.28** (3.2)	1.25** (3.1)	1.27*** (3.3)
Number of party members/1,000		.980 (-0.4)	.975 (-0.6)	.967 (-0.8)
Border regions		.504*** (-4.8)	.529*** (-5.0)	.521*** (-5.1)
Lag days to revolutionary committee			1.0048*** (3.6)	1.0048*** (3.2)
Constant	442*** (42.1)	470*** (33.4)	285*** (27.3)	292*** (27.4)
Number of observations	85	82	82	82

† p<.1; * p<.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001.

If, however, killings were an expression of intergroup violence, these two indicators should predict *higher* death tolls. If Guangxi's violence was driven by political processes that contributed to the intensification of violent suppression over time, delays in the formation of a local revolutionary committee should increase death rates.

The regression estimates indicate that geographic remoteness and the strength of party-state structures both have a large impact on death rates. In the full equation in column 4, the incident rate ratio of 1.27 for number of cadres indicates that for each additional 1,000 government cadres, the predicted death rate increases by 27 percent. A locality at the 77th percentile with 3,000 cadres would have a predicted death rate 61 percent higher than one at the 10th percentile with 1,000 cadres ($1.27^2 = 1.61$). Moreover, border regions had predicted death tolls 48 percent lower than interior regions ($1 - .521 = .479$). A remote location cuts the predicted death rate almost by half. These two results indicate that stronger local party-state structures generated higher death tolls, while location in a remote border region spared

表 4. 当地死亡人数的负二项回归估计 (事件率比; 括号内为 z 分数)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
总人口 /10 万	1.26*** (5.1)	1.15† (1.7)	1.20* (2.3)	1.20* (2.4)
城市人口 / 万。	.995 (-)	.957* (-)	.957** (-)	.950** (-)
汉族占多数	1.34 (1.5)	2.3 (2.6)	2.6 (2.8)	1.21 (1.0)
大量客家人 (>20 百分比)。	.822 (-)			
到地级市所在地距离 /100 公里	0.85 (0.9)	1.12 (0.9)		
干部人数 /1,000		1.28** (3.2)	1.25** (3.1)	1.27*** (3.3)
党员人数 /1,000。		.980 (-0.4)	.975 (-0.6)	.967 (-)
边界地区。		.504*** (-)	.529*** (-)	.521*** (-5.1)
革命委员会的滞后天数		4.8 (5.0)	1.0048*** (3.6)	1.0048*** (3.2)
常量	442*** (42.1)	470*** (33.4)	285*** (27.3)	292*** (27.4)
观察数量	85	82	82	82

† p<.1; * p<.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001.

然而, 如果杀戮是群体间暴力的表现, 那么这两个指标应该可以预测更高的死亡人数。如果广西的暴力是由政治进程驱动的, 这些政治进程导致了随着时间的推移暴力镇压的加剧, 那么地方革命委员会成立的延迟应该会增加死亡率。

回归估计表明, 地理位置的偏远程度和党政机构的实力都对死亡率有很大影响。在第 4 列的完整方程中, 干部人数的事件率比为 1.27, 表明每增加 1000 名政府干部, 预测的死亡率就会增加 27%。一个拥有 3000 名干部的第 77 个百分点的地区预测死亡率, 将比拥有 1000 名干部的第 10 个百分点的地区高 61% ($1.27^2 = 1.61$)。此外, 边境地区的预测死亡人数比内陆地区低 48% ($1 - .521 = .479$)。偏远地区使预测的死亡率几乎降低了一半。这两个结果表明, 更强大的地方党政机构导致了更高的死亡人数, 而位于偏远边境地区则幸免于难

the residents the worst violence. The confidence levels for both estimates are very high.

The timing of the local revolutionary committee also had a very large impact on death rates. I proposed this as a measure of the escalating intensity of repression documented in the narrative descriptions in previous chapters. The incident rate ratio of 1.0048 indicates that each day after January 1 that a revolutionary committee was delayed added close to half of one percent (0.48) to the predicted death toll. This translates to an increase of 3.4 percent per week (1.0048^7), or 15.4 percent per month (1.0048^{30}). A locality that established a revolutionary committee on August 15 would have twice the predicted number of deaths as one established five months earlier, on March 15 ($1.0048^{150} = 2.05$).

The analysis lends additional support for the argument that Guangxi's large death tolls were a product of top-down mobilization of civilian and military structures that reached down into rural districts. Localities where political structures were more fully staffed generated higher levels of violence, and remote border regions escaped the worst. Localities where the April faction was able to delay the imposition of a revolutionary committee for long periods suffered the deadliest violence in the end.

These results also indicate that Guangxi's ethnic diversity was not one of the reasons why its death rate was so much higher than other regions of China. There are no detectable differences in death rates across regions with different ethnic profiles, whether they are defined by the presence of non-Han minorities or by the presence of the Hakka subgroup. These results do not rule out the possibility that ethnic antagonisms played a role in local killings. They may have done so in ethnically diverse regions. What we can conclude is that there is no evidence at the county level that ethnic composition has a measurable impact on death rates. Another way of stating this is that death rates were unusually high across Guangxi, regardless of the local ethnic profile, and were instead driven by political processes that distinguished the province from the rest of China. Violence in ethnically diverse regions may have been motivated by group antagonisms, but it was no more severe than the violence in regions with no ethnic diversity.

Conclusions

The material extracted from the investigation reports leaves little doubt that Guangxi's unusually high death rates were a product of a brief and lopsided civil war between political factions. The violence was implemented by military and civilian hierarchies in an organized campaign of repression against a weaker opponent. It was not until the final wave of killings, unleashed by Beijing's July 3 directive, that Guangxi's death tolls rose to levels not seen elsewhere in China. The directive unleashed violence against the April faction, whose status as a legitimate rebel force was now denied, and it also explicitly linked their resistance to subversion by class enemies in stigmatized households. The result was a liquidation campaign that provided a final solution for a strategically located province that had resisted pacification for almost a year after Beijing had decreed a resolution.

居民遭受了最严重的暴力。这两个估计的置信度都非常高。

当地革命委员会成立的时间也对死亡率产生了非常大的影响。我将其作为衡量前几章叙述性描述中记录的镇压强度不断升级的指标。1.0048 的事件率比表明,革命委员会每推迟一天(从1月1日起)成立,预计死亡人数就会增加近百分之零点五(0.48)。这相当于每周增加3.4% (1.0048^7),或每月增加15.4% (1.0048^{30})。8月15日成立革命委员会的地方,其预计死亡人数将是3月15日提前五个月成立的地方的两倍 ($1.0048^{150} = 2.05$)。

该分析进一步支持了这样一种观点,即广西大量死亡人数是自上而下动员民事和军事结构并深入到农村地区的产物。政治结构人员配备更充分的地区暴力程度更高,而偏远边境地区则幸免于最严重的暴力。四二二派能够长期推迟革命委员会成立的地方,最终遭受了最致命的暴力。

这些结果还表明,广西的民族多样性并不是其死亡率远高于中国其他地区的原因之一。在具有不同民族特征的地区,无论它们是由非汉族少数民族的存在还是由客家亚群的存在来定义的,死亡率都没有可检测到的差异。这些结果并不排除民族对抗在当地杀戮中发挥作用的可能性。它们可能在民族多样化的地区发挥了作用。我们可以得出的结论是,没有县级证据表明民族构成对死亡率有可衡量的影响。另一种说法是,无论当地的民族特征如何,广西的死亡率都异常高,而是由政治进程驱动的,这些政治进程将该省与中国其他地区区分开来。民族多样化地区的暴力事件可能是由群体对抗引起的,但其严重程度并不高于没有民族多样性的地区的暴力事件。

结论

从调查报告中提取的材料几乎可以肯定地表明,广西异常高的死亡率是政治派别之间一场短暂而不平衡的内战的产物。暴力是由军事和民事等级制度在有组织的镇压运动中对付较弱的对手造成的。直到北京7月3日指示引发的最后一波杀戮浪潮,广西的死亡人数才上升到中国其他地方从未见过的水平。该指令对四二二派发动了暴力袭击,他们作为合法叛军的地位现在被否定,并且该指令还明确地将他们的抵抗与受污名化的家庭中阶级敌人的颠覆联系起来。结果是一场清算运动,为这个战略位置重要的省份提供了一个最终解决方案,该省份在北京颁布解决方案近一年后仍在抵抗绥靖。

The July 3 directive had such widespread consequences because of the militarized structure of the party-state, and the way that factional divisions were embedded within it. The Allied faction had a structural advantage in rural regions because their mutually supportive relationship with the PAD lent them rural militia forces that were part of the military hierarchy and under the direct command of the Guangxi Military District. The escalating massacres of the April faction and stigmatized households were pushed forward by village leaders and rural militia under the exhortation of authorities at the county level, who were preparing the ground for a revolutionary committee or consolidating one that had just been established. It is hard to explain the intensified killing during this brief period without reference to the coordination provided by the military hierarchy and its overlay onto factional divisions at the grass roots.

One can plausibly claim that the scale of the massacres in rural communities—and certainly the instances of cannibalism and mutilation of corpses—were not intended by Beijing or the military authorities in Nanning. Their false charges of counterrevolutionary conspiracy had a threefold purpose: first, to intimidate the April faction into abandoning its stubborn resistance; second, to deflect attention from the massacres by the army's rural allies; and third, to excuse their failure to curtail them. Whatever their intention, the result was to release any remaining constraints on violence against a stubborn but much weaker opponent, and to unleash established militia networks that reached deeply into rural districts. It is likely that the final death tolls were unanticipated by authorities in Nanning, and surely the worst atrocities were unforeseen and unwanted. What once appeared to be a form of intergroup violence bred by collective antagonisms toward politically stigmatized households is more accurately viewed as coordinated activity mobilized by a militarized hierarchy. This hierarchy urged its local agents to act on the basis of instructions that made anyone who sympathized with the April faction, and anyone in stigmatized households, a potential target for elimination. The process may have escalated out of control, but the lines of causation are now clear.

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7月3日指示之所以产生如此广泛的影响，是因为党国的军事化结构，以及派系分裂嵌入其中的方式。联合派在农村地区具有结构性优势，因为他们与贫下中农协会的相互支持关系使他们拥有了农村民兵部队，这些部队是军事等级制度的一部分，并直接受广西军区指挥。在县级当局的劝说下，四月派和受污名化的家庭遭受的不断升级的大屠杀是由村领导和农村民兵推动的，他们正在为革命委员会做准备，或巩固一个刚刚成立的革命委员会。如果不参考军事等级制度提供的协调及其对基层派系分裂的叠加，就很难解释这一短暂时期内杀戮的加剧。

人们可以合理地声称，农村社区的大屠杀规模——当然还有食人和残害尸体的事件——并非北京或南宁的军事当局所意图的。他们对反革命阴谋的虚假指控有三重目的：首先，恐吓四月派放弃其顽固抵抗；其次，转移人们对军队农村盟友进行的大屠杀的注意力；第三，为他们未能阻止大屠杀辩解。无论他们的意图如何，结果都是解除了对一个顽固但弱得多的对手的暴力行为的任何剩余约束，并释放了深入农村地区的既定民兵网络。南宁当局很可能没有预料到最终的死亡人数，当然，最严重的暴行是不可预见的和不希望发生的。曾经看起来是一种因对政治上受污名化的家庭的集体敌意而滋生的群体间暴力形式，更准确地看作是由军事化等级制度动员的协调活动。这个等级制度敦促其当地代理人根据指示采取行动，这些指示使任何同情四月派的人，以及任何受污名化家庭的人，都成为潜在的消灭目标。这个过程可能已经失控，但因果关系现在已经很清楚了。

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